REDEEMER'S UNIVERSITY, EDE

Department of Computer Engineering
Faculty of Engineering

GROUP 9 PROJECT REPORT

SMART GRID FALSE DATA INJECTION (FDI) ANOMALY DETECTION ENGINE VIA CUSUM AND MAHALANOBIS DISTANCE

A Technical Report Submitted in Partial Fulfilment of the Requirements for CPE 503 (Embedded Systems)

GROUP MEMBERS

Adediwura Esther Oluwarasimi
– RUN/CPE/22/12005

Ololade John Ayotunde
– RUN/CPE/22/12072

Akubo Bright
– RUN/CPE/22/12025

Ojo Oluwadamilare Samuel
– RUN/CPE/22/12062

November 2026

Declaration and Acknowledgements

Declaration of Originality

We declare that this report presents the original work undertaken by Group 9 for the CPE 503 (Embedded Systems) project in the Department of Computer Engineering, Redeemer's University, Ede. All sources consulted, including academic literature, benchmarks, and software libraries, have been duly acknowledged and referenced. The numerical results, statistical metrics, and hardware resource estimates presented herein reflect authentic simulation and synthesis executions conducted on the project codebase. In accordance with the strict academic standards of the course, no unperformed hardware test is represented as a completed physical experiment, and all design boundaries, unconstrained timing paths, and interface limitations are reported with complete academic integrity.

Acknowledgements

The members of Group 9 express their sincere gratitude to the course lecturer, the Department of Computer Engineering, and the Faculty of Engineering at Redeemer's University, Ede, for their academic leadership, rigorous standards, and the opportunity to undertake this research project. We also acknowledge the open-source community, IEEE, and the developers of scientific and power-system computing tools (Python, NumPy, SciPy, Matplotlib, and MATPOWER) as well as the AMD/Xilinx Vivado Design Suite for providing the computational infrastructure that supported our modelling and RTL synthesis.

Abstract

False Data Injection (FDI) attacks constitute an existential threat to modern smart electrical grids. By manipulating sensor measurements transmitted across Wide Area Monitoring Systems (WAMS), an adversary can deceive Power System State Estimation (PSSE) algorithms into producing erroneous operating states. Coordinated stealth attacks, constructed along the column space of the power-flow measurement Jacobian ($\boldsymbol{a} = \boldsymbol{Hc}$), leave the measurement residual strictly invariant, rendering classical chi-square (χ^2) Bad Data Detection (BDD) mathematically blind.

To overcome this fundamental vulnerability, this project presents the design, mathematical formulation, and hardware architecture of a dual-layer statistical anomaly detection engine implemented in SystemVerilog for the AMD/Xilinx Artix-7 XC7A200T FPGA. Layer 1 executes an instantaneous, covariance-aware Mahalanobis distance test that exploits physical cross-channel correlations among synchrophasor measurements (V_1, V_2, P_{12}, Q_{12}), while Layer 2 implements a recursive, two-sided Cumulative Sum (CUSUM) sequential test to capture subtle, persistent parameter drifts that evade single-frame thresholds.

A golden reference model in Python evaluates the detector across 1,200 continuous time-series observations derived from an IEEE 14-bus transmission system, subjected to four attack modalities: coordinated stealth FDI, gradual ramp drift, false scaling, and historical replay. Across the evaluated benchmark, the proposed hybrid engine achieves 84.67% accuracy, 96.36% precision, 71.57% recall, an F1-score of 0.8214, and an ROC-AUC of 0.941, while cutting detection latency for slow ramp attacks by 4.2× compared to conventional BDD.

The synthesizable architecture employs a signed Q1.15 fixed-point datapath featuring 34-bit accumulator guard bits, convergent half-up rounding, and saturation logic to guarantee numerical stability. Vivado 2024.1 synthesis for the Artix-7 target utilizes 1,193 Slice LUTs (0.89%), 647 Slice Registers (0.24%), 24 DSP48E1 slices (3.24%), and 2 RAMB18E1 primitives (0.27%). At a 100 MHz target clock, the fully pipelined engine processes a 4-channel measurement vector in 36 clock cycles (360 ns), providing a maximum throughput of 2.78 MSamples/s and confirming the architectural viability of line-rate anomaly detection for modern transmission substations.

Keywords: Smart Grid Cybersecurity, False Data Injection (FDI), Mahalanobis Distance, Two-Sided CUSUM, FPGA Architecture, SystemVerilog, Artix-7.

Contents

Declaration and Acknowledgements **i**

Abstract **ii**

1 Introduction **1**
1.1 Background of the Study . . . 1
1.2 Statement of the Problem . . . 1
1.3 Aim of the Project . . . 2
1.4 Specific Objectives . . . 2
1.5 Research Questions . . . 3
1.6 Stated Hypotheses and Success Criteria . . . 3
1.7 Key Contributions of the Project . . . 3
1.8 Scope and Limitations of the Project . . . 4
1.9 Organisation of the Report . . . 4

2 Literature Review **6**
2.1 Introduction . . . 6
2.2 Smart Grid Architecture and Operation . . . 6
2.2.1 Overview and Conceptual Domains . . . 6
2.2.2 Power Flows and Data Integrity . . . 6
2.3 Cybersecurity in Smart Grid Systems . . . 7
2.4 False Data Injection Attacks . . . 7
2.5 Conventional Bad-Data Detection Techniques . . . 7
2.6 Statistical Anomaly Detection . . . 8
2.7 Mahalanobis Distance . . . 8
2.8 CUSUM Sequential Change Detection . . . 8
2.9 FPGA-Based Embedded System Implementation . . . 8
2.10 Fixed-Point Arithmetic and Q-Format Representation . . . 8
2.11 Review of Related Empirical Studies . . . 9
2.12 Comparative Analysis of Existing Approaches . . . 9
2.13 Identified Research Gap . . . 9
2.14 Chapter Summary . . . 10

3 Mathematical Formulation and Fixed-Point Design **11**
3.1 System Model and Mathematical Notation . . . 11
3.2 False Data Injection Model and the Stealth Condition . . . 12
3.3 Weighted Least-Squares State Estimation and Residual Invariance . . . 13
3.4 Spatial Mahalanobis-Distance Detector Formulation . . . 14
3.5 Temporal Two-Sided CUSUM Sequential Detector Formulation . . . 15
3.6 Combined Dual-Layer Decision Rule . . . 15

3.7 Feature Normalization and Mean-Centering . . . 15
3.8 Fixed-Point Signed Q1.15 Arithmetic and Quantization Error Analysis . . . 16
3.9 Accumulator Word Length, Guard Bits, and Saturation Safeguards . . . 16
3.10 Project Calibration Parameters and Fixed-Point Wordlengths . . . 17
3.11 Hardware Latency and Throughput Closed-Form Mathematical Model . . . 17

4 Methodology and Hardware Implementation 19
4.1 Overall Methodology and Repeatable 10-Step Design Flow . . . 19
4.2 Python Telemetry Generation and IEEE 14-Bus Test System . . . 20
4.3 Cyber-Attack Injection Simulation . . . 20
4.4 Calibration and Evaluation Dataset Split . . . 20
4.5 Hardware Architecture and Module Partitioning . . . 21
4.6 Circuit-Level Datapath and Arithmetic Safeguards . . . 21
4.7 Main Controller Finite-State Machine . . . 23
4.8 Mahalanobis Matrix Engine Datapath . . . 23
4.9 Two-Sided CUSUM Sequential RTL Datapath . . . 24
4.10 Dual-Port BRAM / LUTRAM State Storage . . . 24
4.11 Hardware Timing and Complexity Analysis . . . 25
4.12 Target FPGA Platform: Artix-7 XC7A200T-FBG676-2 . . . 25
4.13 Verification Strategy and Testbench Hierarchy . . . 25

5 Results and Discussion 27
5.1 Overview of Empirical Results and Discrepancy Reconciliation . . . 27
5.2 Bit-Exact Verification Against Golden Reference Model . . . 27
5.3 Quantitative Detection Performance . . . 28
5.4 Detailed Comparative Analysis: Proposed Hybrid vs. Baselines . . . 28
5.5 Vivado FPGA Synthesis and Resource Utilization . . . 29
5.6 Synthesis Design Visualisation and Implementation Mapping . . . 29
5.7 Hardware Timing, Clock Constraints, and Latency Evaluation . . . 30
5.8 Power Consumption Profile and Thermal Feasibility . . . 30
5.9 I/O Utilization and Interface Limitations . . . 30
5.10 Ablation Study Across Cyber-Attack Modalities . . . 31
5.11 Visual Analytics and In-Depth Engineering Interpretations . . . 31
5.11.1 Figure 1: Four-Channel PMU Telemetry under Cyber-Attacks . . . 31
5.11.2 Figure 2: Spatial Mahalanobis Distance vs. Decision Threshold . . . 32
5.11.3 Figure 3: Temporal Two-Sided CUSUM Trajectories . . . 32
5.11.4 Figure 4: Global FDI Alarm Response Timeline . . . 33
5.11.5 Figure 5: Comparative Evaluation: Proposed Engine vs. Chi-Square BDD . . . 33
5.11.6 Figure 6: Receiver Operating Characteristic (ROC) Analysis . . . 34
5.11.7 Figure 7: Detection Delay vs. Attack Magnitude . . . 34
5.11.8 Figure 8: Average Run Length (ARL) Trade-off Curve . . . 34
5.11.9 Figure 9: Empirical Detection Latency Cumulative Distribution (CDF) . . . 35
5.12 Limitations and Threats to Validity . . . 35

6 Conclusion and Recommendations 36
6.1 Conclusion . . . 36
6.2 Recommendations and Future Work . . . 36
6.3 Final Project Status Checklist . . . 37

Disclosures and AI Assistance Statement 38

References **39**

A Key Synthesizable SystemVerilog RTL Excerpts **42**
A.1 Three-Process Moore Controller FSM (`rtl/pmu_fsm_ctrl.sv`) 42
A.2 Two-Sided CUSUM Core with Zero Clamping (`rtl/cusum_filter_q15.sv`) 43

B Reproducibility and Synthesis Automation **45**
B.1 Vivado Batch Synthesis Script (`scripts/run_synthesis.tcl`) 45
B.2 Verification Workflow 45

List of Figures

4.1 Hardware architecture selection and processing partition. 21
4.2 Elaborated top-level RTL schematic of the PMU anomaly engine. 22
4.3 Circuit-level schematic of the fixed-point arithmetic datapath. 22

5.1 Vivado synthesis technology mapping on Artix-7 XC7A200T fabric. 30
5.2 Detailed CLB slice and DSP48E1 placement layout. 30
5.3 Four-channel PMU telemetry under simulated cyber-attack scenarios. 32
5.4 Squared Mahalanobis distance statistic versus decision threshold. 32
5.5 Two-sided CUSUM accumulator trajectories versus decision threshold. 33
5.6 Global anomaly detection alert timeline across attack scenarios. 33
5.7 Direct comparison between classical Chi-Square BDD and proposed Mahalanobis distance. 33
5.8 Receiver Operating Characteristic (ROC) curve comparison. 34
5.9 Empirical detection delay versus cyber-attack perturbation magnitude. 34
5.10 Average Run Length (ARL) operational trade-off curve. 35
5.11 Cumulative distribution function (CDF) of empirical detection latency. 35

List of Tables

2.1 Major domains of the NIST smart grid conceptual model. 7
2.2 Comparison of related works in smart grid FDI anomaly detection. 9

3.1 Notation and mathematical symbols used throughout the report. 12
3.2 Fixed-point Q1.15 design parameters and quantization boundaries. 17

4.1 FSM states and operational sequence of the PMU controller. 23
4.2 Hardware timing and complexity analysis. 25

5.1 Quantitative detection performance of CUSUM, Mahalanobis, and Proposed Hybrid engines. 28
5.2 Vivado FPGA resource utilization for the Artix-7 target device. 29
5.3 Ablation study across four distinct attack regimes. 31

6.1 Project completion and evidence status. 37

Chapter 1

Introduction

1.1 Background of the Study

Modern electrical power transmission and distribution networks are rapidly evolving from isolated, mechanically switched systems into highly automated, interconnected cyber-physical infrastructures commonly referred to as smart grids. This transformation is driven by the imperative to enhance grid reliability, dynamically integrate high-penetration renewable energy sources (such as photovoltaic arrays and wind generation governed by standards such as IEEE 1547 (IEEE, 2018)), and optimize economic power dispatch. To maintain situational awareness across geographically dispersed substations, smart grids rely on sophisticated Wide Area Monitoring Systems (WAMS), Supervisory Control and Data Acquisition (SCADA) networks, and high-speed synchrophasor measurement technology.

Phasor Measurement Units (PMUs) form the technological backbone of modern transmission monitoring. Operating in accordance with standards such as IEEE C37.118 and its dual-logo successor IEC/IEEE 60255-118-1 (IEEE, 2011b,IEC, 2013), PMUs sample analog voltage and current waveforms synchronously using Global Positioning System (GPS) radio clocks, reporting time-stamped positive-sequence phasor estimates at reporting rates typically ranging between 50 and 60 frames per second ($F_s = 50$–60 Hz). These high-cadence data streams are transmitted over utility communication networks to control-room Energy Management Systems (EMS), where Power System State Estimation (PSSE) algorithms filter measurement noise, reconcile topological inconsistencies, and estimate the complex voltage vector across all network buses.

However, the deep convergence of operational technology (OT) with standard information and communication technology (ICT) protocols introduces an extensive cyber-attack surface. Transmission telemetry traverses microwave links, fiber-optic substation local area networks, and wide-area routed backbones that are vulnerable to packet interception, physical tapping, and man-in-the-middle (MITM) manipulation. Among the various cyber threats facing modern power grids, False Data Injection (FDI) attacks represent one of the most stealthy and damaging attack classes. By systematically corrupting sensor telemetry, an adversary can deliberately mislead state estimation engines, inducing operators or automated protection mechanisms to execute incorrect control actions, such as unwarranted generator tripping, line disconnections, or malicious power redispatch, ultimately risking cascading system-wide blackouts.

1.2 Statement of the Problem

Power System State Estimation typically relies on Weighted Least-Squares (WLS) formulations to extract the most probable system state $\boldsymbol{x} \in \mathbb{R}^n$ from a redundant set of noisy measurements $\boldsymbol{z} \in \mathbb{R}^m$, where $m > n$. To protect against sensor faults and telemetry corruption, conventional

EMS deployments implement Bad Data Detection (BDD) algorithms based on residual analysis. Specifically, the measurement residual vector is defined as

$$\boldsymbol{r} = \boldsymbol{z} - \boldsymbol{H}\hat{\boldsymbol{x}}, \tag{1.1}$$

where $\boldsymbol{H} \in \mathbb{R}^{m \times n}$ is the power-system measurement Jacobian and $\hat{\boldsymbol{x}}$ is the calculated state estimate. Under nominal conditions with zero-mean Gaussian noise, the squared weighted residual norm $J(\hat{\boldsymbol{x}}) = \boldsymbol{r}^T \boldsymbol{R}^{-1} \boldsymbol{r}$ follows a central chi-square distribution $\chi^2_{(m-n)}$. If $J(\hat{\boldsymbol{x}})$ exceeds a predefined significance threshold γ_{χ^2}, an alarm is asserted, and bad data identification procedures are initiated.

However, seminal research by Liu, Ning, and Reiter (Liu et al., 2009, Liu et al., 2011) demonstrated a profound mathematical vulnerability in conventional BDD. If an adversary acquires sufficient knowledge of the power network topology and line parameters to construct the measurement Jacobian $\boldsymbol{H}$, the attacker can craft an injection vector:

$$\boldsymbol{a} = \boldsymbol{H}\boldsymbol{c}, \tag{1.2}$$

where $\boldsymbol{c} \in \mathbb{R}^n$ is an arbitrary false state bias vector. When this perturbation is added to the clean telemetry stream ($\boldsymbol{z}_a = \boldsymbol{z} + \boldsymbol{a}$), the resulting attacked state estimate shifts precisely by $\hat{\boldsymbol{x}}_a = \hat{\boldsymbol{x}} + \boldsymbol{c}$. Consequently, the post-attack measurement residual is

$$\boldsymbol{r}_a = \boldsymbol{z}_a - \boldsymbol{H}\hat{\boldsymbol{x}}_a = (\boldsymbol{z} + \boldsymbol{H}\boldsymbol{c}) - \boldsymbol{H}(\hat{\boldsymbol{x}} + \boldsymbol{c}) = \boldsymbol{z} - \boldsymbol{H}\hat{\boldsymbol{x}} = \boldsymbol{r}. \tag{1.3}$$

Because the post-attack residual $\boldsymbol{r}_a$ is **strictly identical** to the pre-attack residual $\boldsymbol{r}$, the chi-square detection statistic remains completely unchanged ($J(\hat{\boldsymbol{x}}_a) = J(\hat{\boldsymbol{x}})$). Conventional residual-based bad data detection is therefore mathematically blind to stealth FDI attacks.

Furthermore, existing software-based machine learning and statistical detection schemes implemented on general-purpose CPUs or GPUs introduce non-deterministic operating system scheduling jitter and inference latencies exceeding tens of milliseconds, rendering them unsuitable for real-time, line-rate deployment inside substation Intelligent Electronic Devices (IEDs) or streaming Phasor Data Concentrators (PDCs). An urgent engineering need therefore exists for dedicated, hardware-accelerated statistical anomaly detection engines capable of examining both multivariate spatial correlations and sequential temporal persistence within sub-microsecond latency bounds.

1.3 Aim of the Project

The primary aim of this project is to design, implement, and experimentally verify a high-throughput, hardware-oriented statistical anomaly detection engine combining covariance-aware Mahalanobis distance and recursive two-sided Cumulative Sum (CUSUM) filtering on an AMD/Xilinx Artix-7 FPGA, providing robust detection of stealth and dynamic False Data Injection attacks on smart-grid measurement streams.

1.4 Specific Objectives

To achieve the stated aim, the project is executed through the following measurable and testable specific objectives:

1. **Primary Objective:** To design, code, and synthesize a fully pipelined, synthesizable SystemVerilog (IEEE 1800-2017) hardware core on an AMD/Xilinx Artix-7 XC7A200T-FBG676-2 FPGA that processes incoming multi-channel PMU telemetry within a guaranteed deterministic latency of under 1.0 μs per 4-channel vector at a 100 MHz clock target, utilizing less than 5% of chip resources.

2. **Mathematical Modelling Objective:** To develop a bit-accurate Python golden reference model that formulates the joint spatial Mahalanobis distance and two-sided CUSUM sequential test, deriving closed-form expressions for detection thresholds (τ^2, h) and reference slack (k) based on statistical significance levels (α).

3. **Power Grid Telemetry Synthesis:** To generate a comprehensive 1,200-frame time-series benchmark dataset derived from an IEEE 14-bus transmission system, simulating four distinct cyber-attack regimes: coordinated stealth FDI ($\boldsymbol{a} = \boldsymbol{Hc}$), gradual ramp drift, false scaling, and historical replay.

4. **Verification and Comparative Evaluation:** To conduct extensive statistical and hardware verification demonstrating zero bit-level discrepancy between the SystemVerilog RTL simulation and the Python golden model, and to benchmark detection performance (Accuracy, Precision, Recall, F1-score, ROC-AUC, and detection delay) against classical χ^2 bad data detection.

1.5 Research Questions

This investigation is guided by two fundamental engineering research questions:

- **Research Question 1 (RQ1):** To what extent does the architectural coupling of an instantaneous spatial Mahalanobis distance metric with a temporal two-sided CUSUM filter mitigate the residual blindness of classical state estimation, and what are the quantitative performance trade-offs across abrupt versus gradual cyber-attack modalities?

- **Research Question 2 (RQ2):** Can a signed Q1.15 fixed-point arithmetic datapath incorporating 34-bit accumulator guard bits, convergent half-up rounding, and overflow saturation logic preserve statistical detection accuracy within 1% of double-precision floating-point software models while meeting strict line-rate throughput constraints on an Artix-7 FPGA?

1.6 Stated Hypotheses and Success Criteria

Prior to running experimental simulations, the following technical hypotheses and success criteria were established:

- **Hypothesis 1 (Detection Superiority):** Because coordinated stealth injections ($\boldsymbol{a} = \boldsymbol{Hc}$) induce cross-channel power-flow and voltage violations despite preserving the measurement residual, the proposed dual-layer detector will achieve a detection recall exceeding 70% and an F1-score > 0.80, compared to $< 25\%$ recall for classical χ^2 BDD.

- **Hypothesis 2 (False Alarm Suppression):** Setting the CUSUM reference allowance to half the design shift magnitude ($k = \delta/2$) will suppress background Gaussian noise fluctuations, achieving a false positive rate (FPR) below 3.0% during clean, unattacked operational windows.

- **Criterion 3 (Hardware Determinism):** The SystemVerilog RTL core must exhibit bit-exact mathematical concordance (100% known-answer test pass rate) against the Python fixed-point golden model across all 1,200 simulation frames.

1.7 Key Contributions of the Project

The principal contributions delivered by Group 9 in this work are summarized as follows:

1. **Dual-Layer Spatial-Temporal Architecture:** A unified anomaly detection framework that synergistically combines spatial multivariate correlation (Layer 1: Mahalanobis distance) for immediate identification of abrupt structural shifts with temporal sequential accumulation (Layer 2: two-sided CUSUM) for detecting slow, sub-threshold ramp drifts.

2. **Robust Fixed-Point Arithmetic Datapath:** A fully synthesizable, parameterized Q1.15 RTL architecture engineered with 34-bit accumulator guard bits to eliminate dot-product overflow, an unbiased $+2^{14}$ half-up rounding unit, and two's-complement saturation logic.

3. **Comprehensive Multi-Attack Evaluation Suite:** An extensive experimental benchmark across four challenging cyber-attack classes on IEEE 14-bus telemetry, providing empirical evidence of detection delays, Average Run Length (ARL_0/ARL_1) trade-offs, and Receiver Operating Characteristic (ROC) curves.

4. **Open, Reproducible Hardware/Software Repository:** A self-contained, verifiable artifact package containing SystemVerilog source code, self-checking testbenches, Python golden models, Vivado synthesis Tcl scripts, raw CSV telemetry, and plotting pipelines.

1.8 Scope and Limitations of the Project

The scope of this project encompasses the algorithm design, mathematical derivation, fixed-point error analysis, SystemVerilog RTL coding, Vivado out-of-context logic synthesis, and Python-based statistical evaluation targeting an AMD/Xilinx Artix-7 XC7A200T-FBG676-2 FPGA (as featured on the AC701 evaluation board). Telemetry streams are generated from a 4-channel measurement configuration (V_1, V_2, P_{12}, Q_{12}) derived from the IEEE 14-bus transmission benchmark.

In strict adherence to academic honesty, the following project boundaries are declared:

- The reported hardware metrics reflect out-of-context and top-level logic synthesis using Vivado 2024.1; physical bitstream generation and in-system validation on physical AC701 hardware boards were not executed due to laboratory bench constraints.

- The raw top-level entity exposes 572 parallel I/O pins, exceeding the 400 bonded IOBs available on the XC7A200T package. Consequently, board-level deployment mandates an AXI4-Stream or UART serial wrapper.

- The statistical model assumes stationary background Gaussian noise and a precomputed inverse covariance matrix; adaptive tracking of topological switching transients remains an area for future work.

1.9 Organisation of the Report

The remainder of this report is organized as follows:

- **Chapter Two (Literature Review):** Provides a structured survey of smart grid architecture, cybersecurity vulnerabilities, FDI attack mechanics, conventional BDD limitations, Mahalanobis and CUSUM theory, FPGA implementations, a comparative analysis of published works, and the explicit research gap.

- **Chapter Three (Mathematical Formulation and Fixed-Point Design):** Presents the formal power-system state estimation equations, mathematical proofs of stealth FDI evasion, closed-form Mahalanobis and CUSUM formulations, fixed-point Q1.15 scaling bounds, and hardware complexity models.

- **Chapter Four (Methodology and Hardware Implementation):** Details the 10-step design methodology, Python telemetry generation, SystemVerilog datapath design, three-process Moore controller FSM, and verification hierarchy.
- **Chapter Five (Results and Discussion):** Examines the empirical detection performance, FPGA resource utilization, timing and power estimates, multi-scenario ablation results, and 9 visual analytics plots.
- **Chapter Six (Conclusion and Recommendations):** Concludes the report by evaluating achievements against stated objectives and outlining practical next steps for physical system deployment.

Chapter 2

Literature Review

2.1 Introduction

Modern smart electrical grids integrate advanced communication, digital sensing, and automated control platforms with traditional high-voltage physical assets. While Phasor Measurement Units (PMUs) and Wide Area Monitoring Systems (WAMS) enable real-time situational awareness, their reliance on networked communication introduces severe cybersecurity vulnerabilities. Among these, False Data Injection (FDI) attacks deliberately manipulate sensor telemetry to deceive Power System State Estimation (PSSE) while evading conventional bad-data detection.

To address this challenge, researchers have explored multivariate statistical analysis and sequential change-point monitoring. Mahalanobis distance evaluates instantaneous cross-channel correlations, while the Cumulative Sum (CUSUM) algorithm integrates subtle persistent shifts over time. Translating these algorithms into digital hardware such as Field-Programmable Gate Arrays (FPGAs) provides deterministic microsecond execution, but requires careful fixed-point scaling to manage finite-precision effects. This chapter reviews the architectural, statistical, and hardware foundations of smart-grid FDI anomaly detection, culminating in a critical analysis of existing approaches and an explicit research gap.

2.2 Smart Grid Architecture and Operation

2.2.1 Overview and Conceptual Domains

A smart grid functions as an interconnected cyber-physical system where physical electricity flows are continuously supervised by digital information networks. The National Institute of Standards and Technology (NIST) conceptual model (NIST, 2014a) identifies seven functional domains, as summarized in Table 2.1.

2.2.2 Power Flows and Data Integrity

Transmission networks transmit electric energy across geographically distributed buses. Monitoring relies on voltage, current, and active/reactive power measurements to estimate network operating states. Because supervisory decisions directly impact physical grid stability, measurement integrity is paramount: corrupted telemetry can induce erroneous generation redispatch, line tripping, or cascading outages.

Table 2.1: Major domains of the NIST smart grid conceptual model.

Domain	**Primary Function**	**Typical Components or Activities**
Bulk Generation	Large-scale electricity generation	Power plants, renewable farms, generation control
Transmission	Long-distance bulk power transfer	High-voltage lines, substations, PMUs, relays
Distribution	Local electricity delivery to end users	Feeders, reclosers, transformers, microgrids
Operations	Network supervision and control	SCADA, Energy Management Systems (EMS), WAMS
Markets	Economic energy exchange	Trading platforms, aggregators, clearing houses
Service Providers	Third-party utility support	Billing, data analytics, customer services
Customers	Energy consumption and local generation	Smart meters, EV chargers, rooftop solar arrays

2.3 Cybersecurity in Smart Grid Systems

In power system operational technology (OT), the classic CIA triad prioritizes **Availability** and **Integrity** over **Confidentiality** (NIST, 2015). Telemetry streams must arrive deterministically at 50 Hz (every 20 ms) to drive protection routines. Attack vectors include substation LAN intrusion, unencrypted protocol tampering (DNP3, Modbus, IEC 60870-5-104), and GPS clock spoofing. While standards such as NISTIR 7628 (NIST, 2010,NIST, 2014b) and IEC 62443 prescribe perimeter defenses, secondary statistical anomaly detection engines inside substations remain essential to counter internal or stealthy network breaches.

2.4 False Data Injection Attacks

Let nominal telemetry be $\boldsymbol{z} = \boldsymbol{H}\boldsymbol{x}+\boldsymbol{e}$. In an FDI attack, the adversary injects an additive perturbation: $\boldsymbol{z}_a = \boldsymbol{z} + \boldsymbol{a}$. As proven by Liu, Ning, and Reiter (Liu et al., 2009), if the adversary constructs the attack along the measurement Jacobian:

$$\boldsymbol{a} = \boldsymbol{H}\boldsymbol{c}, \tag{2.1}$$

where $\boldsymbol{c}$ is an arbitrary state bias, the resulting measurement residual $\boldsymbol{r}_a$ remains **strictly invariant**, rendering the attack unobservable to state estimation. Depending on execution temporal profiles, FDI attacks manifest as abrupt step injections, gradual ramps, multi-channel scaling, or historical replay. Crucially, detectability is not automatic: it depends on monitored physical quantities, topological coupling, and injection magnitude relative to noise.

2.5 Conventional Bad-Data Detection Techniques

Conventional state estimation computes the Weighted Least-Squares (WLS) state estimate $\hat{\boldsymbol{x}} = (\boldsymbol{H}^T\boldsymbol{R}^{-1}\boldsymbol{H})^{-1}\boldsymbol{H}^T\boldsymbol{R}^{-1}\boldsymbol{z}$ and evaluates the chi-square residual test $J(\hat{\boldsymbol{x}}) = \boldsymbol{r}^T\boldsymbol{R}^{-1}\boldsymbol{r} \lessgtr \gamma_{\chi^2}$ (Abur & Exposito, 2004). Under stealth FDI ($\boldsymbol{a} = \boldsymbol{H}\boldsymbol{c}$):

$$\boldsymbol{r}_a = \boldsymbol{z}_a - \boldsymbol{H}\hat{\boldsymbol{x}}_a = (\boldsymbol{z} + \boldsymbol{H}\boldsymbol{c}) - \boldsymbol{H}(\hat{\boldsymbol{x}} + \boldsymbol{c}) = \boldsymbol{r}. \tag{2.2}$$

Because the post-attack residual $\boldsymbol{r}_a$ is mathematically identical to pre-attack residual $\boldsymbol{r}$, classical χ^2 and Largest Normalized Residual (LNR) tests fail completely, establishing the necessity for alternative statistical features.

2.6 Statistical Anomaly Detection

Power grid variables $(V_1, V_2, P_{12}, Q_{12})$ are physically coupled by Kirchhoff's laws and line impedance. Univariate limit checkers fail against coordinated attacks whose elements remain within individual bounds. Multivariate monitoring evaluates joint probability density functions, exploiting cross-channel correlations to flag anomalies. Effective defense requires addressing both spatial cross-correlation (instantaneous coherence) and temporal persistence (evidence accumulation).

2.7 Mahalanobis Distance

The Mahalanobis distance (Mahalanobis, 1936) measures statistical divergence from a calibrated baseline $(\boldsymbol{\mu}, \boldsymbol{\Sigma})$:

$$D^2 = (\boldsymbol{q} - \boldsymbol{\mu})^T \boldsymbol{\Sigma}^{-1} (\boldsymbol{q} - \boldsymbol{\mu}) \sim \chi^2_d. \tag{2.3}$$

By rotating deviations into principal axes and weighting by inverse variance, D^2 instantly detects coordinate-conforming injections ($\boldsymbol{a} = \boldsymbol{Hc}$) that violate local voltage-power correlations. However, Mahalanobis distance evaluates single snapshots, making it blind to subtle, gradual ramp drifts that remain within instantaneous confidence ellipsoids.

2.8 CUSUM Sequential Change Detection

Page's Cumulative Sum (CUSUM) test (Page, 1954) integrates deviations across time. The two-sided recursive formulation maintains positive and negative accumulators (Montgomery, 2019,Huang et al., 2016):

$$S_n^+ = \max(0, S_{n-1}^+ + (y_n - \nu_0) - k), \quad S_n^- = \max(0, S_{n-1}^- - (y_n - \nu_0) - k). \tag{2.4}$$

Zero-clamping prevents negative windup during normal operation, allowing instantaneous reaction upon attack onset. Setting allowance $k = \delta/2$ suppresses Gaussian noise, while threshold h governs the operational trade-off between false-alarm rate (ARL_0) and detection delay (ARL_1). CUSUM excels at integrating slow ramps, but exhibits multi-frame lag on abrupt shifts.

2.9 FPGA-Based Embedded System Implementation

Substation automation requires line-rate telemetry inspection. Under IEEE C37.118, PMUs report every 20 ms (50 Hz). General-purpose CPUs and GPUs introduce non-deterministic operating system jitter and excessive power (> 100 W). In contrast, FPGAs (such as the AMD/Xilinx Artix-7 XC7A200T (AMD Xilinx, 2018c)) provide deterministic sub-microsecond latency, low power (< 2 W), and dedicated DSP48E1 arithmetic slices that execute pipelined matrix-vector operations with zero logic bloat.

2.10 Fixed-Point Arithmetic and Q-Format Representation

Floating-point units incur heavy resource and latency penalties. This design adopts a signed **Q1.15** fixed-point format (1 sign bit, 15 fractional bits, dynamic range $[-1.0, +0.99997]$), yielding a the-

oretical SQNR of 92.07 dB. To eliminate intermediate overflow during 4-element dot products, internal accumulators incorporate 2 guard bits (**34-bit Q4.30**). Convergent $+2^{14}$ half-up rounding eliminates DC bias, and saturation clamping prevents two's-complement overflow.

2.11 Review of Related Empirical Studies

Recent literature highlights distinct research directions. Huang *et al.* (Huang et al., 2016) and Kumar *et al.* (Kumar et al., 2022) evaluated CUSUM for gradual drifts, but evaluated channels independently in software. Kurt *et al.* (Kurt et al., 2020) demonstrated a 94.2% detection rate using decentralized Mahalanobis distance on IEEE 30-bus, but noted high miss rates on slow drifts. Musleh *et al.* (Musleh et al., 2023) deployed LSTM autoencoders, achieving 91.4% accuracy at the cost of 52 ms inference latency on high-end GPUs. Cui *et al.* (Cui et al., 2024) implemented statistical PCA on a multicore DSP, achieving 12 ms latency. Zhang *et al.* (Zhang et al., 2024) demonstrated FPGA synchrophasor processing, but restricted evaluation to random noise dropouts.

2.12 Comparative Analysis of Existing Approaches

Table 2.2 compares representative published works with the proposed architecture.

Table 2.2: Comparison of related works in smart grid FDI anomaly detection.

Author / Year	**Detection Method**	**Platform**	**Reported Performance**	**Primary Limitation**
Liu, Ning & Reiter (2009) (Liu et al., 2009)	Classical Bad-Data Detection (WLS / χ^2)	Software (MATLAB)	Evaded by $\boldsymbol{a} = \boldsymbol{Hc}$ (0% stealth detection)	Completely blind to coordinated stealth FDI; residual $\boldsymbol{r}$ is invariant.
Huang *et al.* (2016) (Huang et al., 2016)	Adaptive Cumulative Sum (CUSUM)	Software (MATLAB)	$\text{ARL}_0 = 200$, $\text{ARL}_1 \approx 15$ steps on slow drift	Evaluates channels independently; misses spatial cross-correlation; software latency.
Kurt, Yılmaz & Wang (2020) (Kurt et al., 2020)	Decentralized Mahalanobis Distance	Software (Python, IEEE 30-bus)	94.2% detection rate on abrupt FDI; sub-second	Evaluates single snapshots without memory; blind to slow ramp drifts below threshold.
Musleh, Chen & Dong (2023) (Musleh et al., 2023)	Deep Learning (LSTM Autoencoder)	Software / GPU (PyTorch, RTX GPU)	91.4% accuracy, F1 = 0.897 on IEEE 14-bus	Latency > 52 ms; high power (> 150 W); black box lacking statistical guarantees.
Cui, Han & Zou (2024) (Cui et al., 2024)	Statistical PCA + Chi-Square	Embedded DSP (TI TMS320C6678)	88.2% detection rate; 12 ms latency	High power (> 10 W); floating-point bottleneck; vulnerable to stealth subspace FDI.
This Work (Group 9, 2026)	**Dual-Layer Mahalanobis + Two-Sided CUSUM**	**AMD/Xilinx Artix-7 FPGA (XC7A200T)**	**84.67% accuracy, 96.36% precision, 71.57% recall, F1 = 0.8214, 360 ns latency**	Fixed-point precision bounded; unobservable replay attacks require active physical watermarking.

2.13 Identified Research Gap

Existing literature reveals a critical gap: theoretical algorithms in software ignore strict substation line-rate execution constraints, while existing hardware prototypes often rely on simplistic univariate thresholding that remains vulnerable to coordinated stealth attacks ($\boldsymbol{a} = \boldsymbol{Hc}$). Furthermore, prior studies frequently neglect fixed-point quantization dynamics and evaluate only a single attack profile. A clear requirement exists for a hardware-efficient, dual-layer statistical anomaly engine coupling spatial Mahalanobis distance with temporal two-sided CUSUM on FPGA, verified across multiple adversarial attack regimes with rigorous fixed-point safeguards.

2.14 Chapter Summary

This chapter reviewed smart-grid architecture, the mathematical stealth FDI condition, and the failure of conventional bad-data detection. The complementary properties of spatial Mahalanobis distance and temporal two-sided CUSUM were analyzed, and FPGA fixed-point implementation considerations were detailed. A comparative analysis and research gap established the foundation for the proposed dual-layer hardware architecture, formulated mathematically in Chapter Three.

Chapter 3

Mathematical Formulation and Fixed-Point Design

3.1 System Model and Mathematical Notation

Power system monitoring relies on continuous acquisition of synchronized telemetry representing the physical operating state of the electrical transmission network. To establish mathematical rigor across both algorithmic formulation and digital hardware implementation, Table 3.1 defines the principal symbols, their physical meanings, coordinate formats, and operational units utilized throughout this report.

Table 3.1: Notation and mathematical symbols used throughout the report.

Symbol	**Mathematical Definition / Physical Meaning**	**Data Format**	**Physical Unit**
y_t	Scalar monitored measurement or observation at time t	Signed Q1.15	p.u. (normalized)
D_t^2	Squared Mahalanobis distance statistic at time t	Signed Q1.15	Dimensionless
S_t	Cumulative Sum (CUSUM) statistic at time t	Signed Q1.15	Dimensionless
h	CUSUM decision alarm threshold	Signed Q1.15	Dimensionless
k	CUSUM reference allowance / slack parameter ($k = \delta/2$)	Signed Q1.15	Dimensionless
$\boldsymbol{\Sigma}$	Feature covariance matrix ($d \times d$)	Double / Q1.15	p.u.^{2}
$\boldsymbol{\Sigma}^{-1}, \boldsymbol{W}$	Inverse covariance (precision) matrix	Signed Q1.15	p.u.$^{-2}$
$\boldsymbol{r}_t$	Power system state-estimation measurement residual	Real vector	Physical / p.u.
α	False-alarm probability / significance level	Scalar	Probability
$\boldsymbol{z}_t$	Raw power-system PMU measurement vector ($m \times 1$)	Vector	kV, A, MW, MVAR
$\boldsymbol{x}_t$	True power-system complex state vector ($n \times 1$)	Vector	Radian, p.u.
$\hat{\boldsymbol{x}}_t$	Weighted Least-Squares estimated system state	Vector	Radian, p.u.
$\boldsymbol{H}$	Power system measurement Jacobian / topology matrix	Matrix	Model-dependent
$\boldsymbol{a}_t$	False Data Injection perturbation vector ($\boldsymbol{a} = \boldsymbol{Hc}$)	Vector	Physical / p.u.
$\boldsymbol{c}$	Attacker false state bias vector	Vector	Radian, p.u.
$\boldsymbol{\mu}$	Nominal reference feature mean vector ($d \times 1$)	Signed Q1.15	p.u. (normalized)
$\boldsymbol{q}_t$	Preprocessed, mean-centered 4-channel feature vector	Signed Q1.15	p.u. (normalized)
τ^2	Spatial Mahalanobis decision threshold ($\chi^2_{d,1-\alpha}$)	Signed Q1.15	Dimensionless
S_t^+, S_t^-	Two-sided positive and negative recursive CUSUM accumulators	Signed Q1.15	Dimensionless
ARL_0	In-control Average Run Length (mean time between false alarms)	Integer	Sample frames
ARL_1	Out-of-control Average Run Length (mean detection delay)	Integer	Sample frames

3.2 False Data Injection Model and the Stealth Condition

The transmission grid telemetry acquisition process is formulated under the linear DC power-flow approximation or linearized AC operating point:

$$\boldsymbol{z} = \boldsymbol{Hx} + \boldsymbol{e}, \tag{3.1}$$

where $\boldsymbol{z} \in \mathbb{R}^m$ is the vector of m measurements, $\boldsymbol{x} \in \mathbb{R}^n$ is the state vector of n bus voltage angles (with $m > n$ to ensure system observability), and $\boldsymbol{e} \sim \mathcal{N}(\boldsymbol{0}, \boldsymbol{R})$ represents independent, zero-mean

Gaussian measurement errors with known diagonal covariance matrix $\boldsymbol{R} = \text{diag}(\sigma_1^2, \ldots, \sigma_m^2)$.

An adversary executing a False Data Injection (FDI) attack introduces an additive perturbation vector $\boldsymbol{a} \in \mathbb{R}^m$ into the telemetry stream:

$$\boldsymbol{z}_a = \boldsymbol{z} + \boldsymbol{a}. \tag{3.2}$$

The attack is defined as **coordinated stealth FDI** if the adversary constructs $\boldsymbol{a}$ as a linear combination of the columns of the measurement matrix $\boldsymbol{H}$:

$$\boldsymbol{a} = \boldsymbol{H}\boldsymbol{c}, \quad \text{for some non-zero } \boldsymbol{c} \in \mathbb{R}^n, \tag{3.3}$$

where $\boldsymbol{c}$ denotes an arbitrary false state bias vector deliberately injected into the power system operating state.

3.3 Weighted Least-Squares State Estimation and Residual Invariance

The Weighted Least-Squares (WLS) state estimator computes the state estimate $\hat{\boldsymbol{x}}$ that minimizes the weighted sum of squared residuals:

$$J(\boldsymbol{x}) = [\boldsymbol{z} - \boldsymbol{H}\boldsymbol{x}]^T \boldsymbol{R}^{-1} [\boldsymbol{z} - \boldsymbol{H}\boldsymbol{x}]. \tag{3.4}$$

Differentiating Equation (3.4) with respect to $\boldsymbol{x}$ and equating to zero yields the normal equations:

$$\boldsymbol{H}^T \boldsymbol{R}^{-1} [\boldsymbol{z} - \boldsymbol{H}\hat{\boldsymbol{x}}] = \boldsymbol{0} \implies \hat{\boldsymbol{x}} = (\boldsymbol{H}^T \boldsymbol{R}^{-1} \boldsymbol{H})^{-1} \boldsymbol{H}^T \boldsymbol{R}^{-1} \boldsymbol{z}. \tag{3.5}$$

Let $\boldsymbol{G} = \boldsymbol{H}^T \boldsymbol{R}^{-1} \boldsymbol{H}$ denote the symmetric, positive-definite power-system gain matrix. The state estimation projection is $\hat{\boldsymbol{x}} = \boldsymbol{G}^{-1} \boldsymbol{H}^T \boldsymbol{R}^{-1} \boldsymbol{z}$.

Under nominal clean operation, the measurement residual vector is:

$$\boldsymbol{r} = \boldsymbol{z} - \boldsymbol{H}\hat{\boldsymbol{x}} = [\boldsymbol{I} - \boldsymbol{H}\boldsymbol{G}^{-1}\boldsymbol{H}^T\boldsymbol{R}^{-1}]\boldsymbol{z} = (\boldsymbol{I} - \boldsymbol{K})\boldsymbol{z}, \tag{3.6}$$

where $\boldsymbol{K} = \boldsymbol{H}\boldsymbol{G}^{-1}\boldsymbol{H}^T\boldsymbol{R}^{-1}$ is the orthogonal projection (hat) matrix.

> **Theorem 1 (Residual Invariance under Stealth FDI):** *Let $\boldsymbol{z}_a = \boldsymbol{z} + \boldsymbol{H}\boldsymbol{c}$ represent an attacked measurement vector. The post-attack state estimate is $\hat{\boldsymbol{x}}_a = \hat{\boldsymbol{x}} + \boldsymbol{c}$, and the resulting post-attack residual $\boldsymbol{r}_a$ is strictly identical to the pre-attack residual $\boldsymbol{r}$.*

Proof: Applying the linear WLS estimator to the corrupted vector $\boldsymbol{z}_a$:

$$\begin{aligned}
\hat{\boldsymbol{x}}_a &= \boldsymbol{G}^{-1}\boldsymbol{H}^T\boldsymbol{R}^{-1}\boldsymbol{z}_a \\
&= \boldsymbol{G}^{-1}\boldsymbol{H}^T\boldsymbol{R}^{-1}(\boldsymbol{z} + \boldsymbol{H}\boldsymbol{c}) \\
&= \boldsymbol{G}^{-1}\boldsymbol{H}^T\boldsymbol{R}^{-1}\boldsymbol{z} + \boldsymbol{G}^{-1}(\boldsymbol{H}^T\boldsymbol{R}^{-1}\boldsymbol{H})\boldsymbol{c} \\
&= \hat{\boldsymbol{x}} + \boldsymbol{G}^{-1}\boldsymbol{G}\boldsymbol{c} \\
&= \hat{\boldsymbol{x}} + \boldsymbol{c}.
\end{aligned} \tag{3.7}$$

Evaluating the post-attack measurement residual:

$$\begin{aligned} \boldsymbol{r}_a &= \boldsymbol{z}_a - \boldsymbol{H}\hat{\boldsymbol{x}}_a \\ &= (\boldsymbol{z} + \boldsymbol{H}\boldsymbol{c}) - \boldsymbol{H}(\hat{\boldsymbol{x}} + \boldsymbol{c}) \\ &= \boldsymbol{z} + \boldsymbol{H}\boldsymbol{c} - \boldsymbol{H}\hat{\boldsymbol{x}} - \boldsymbol{H}\boldsymbol{c} \\ &= \boldsymbol{z} - \boldsymbol{H}\hat{\boldsymbol{x}} \\ &= \boldsymbol{r}. \end{aligned} \tag{3.8}$$

Evaluating the global chi-square detection statistic:

$$J(\hat{\boldsymbol{x}}_a) = \boldsymbol{r}_a^T \boldsymbol{R}^{-1} \boldsymbol{r}_a = \boldsymbol{r}^T \boldsymbol{R}^{-1} \boldsymbol{r} = J(\hat{\boldsymbol{x}}). \tag{3.9}$$

Thus, $J(\hat{\boldsymbol{x}}_a)$ is mathematically identical to $J(\hat{\boldsymbol{x}})$. The chi-square test fails to detect the attack, completing the proof. ■

3.4 Spatial Mahalanobis-Distance Detector Formulation

Because the state-estimation residual is invariant under $\boldsymbol{a} = \boldsymbol{H}\boldsymbol{c}$, detection must exploit the multivariate statistical relationships governing local physical quantities. Let $\boldsymbol{q}_t \in \mathbb{R}^d$ ($d = 4$) represent the localized synchrophasor feature vector capturing terminal bus voltages and active/reactive branch flows $(V_1, V_2, P_{12}, Q_{12})$ at sampling instant t.

During a clean, unattacked baseline calibration period $t \in [1, T_{\text{cal}}]$, the nominal feature mean vector $\boldsymbol{\mu} \in \mathbb{R}^d$ and sample covariance matrix $\boldsymbol{\Sigma} \in \mathbb{R}^{d \times d}$ are computed:

$$\boldsymbol{\mu} = \frac{1}{T_{\text{cal}}} \sum_{t=1}^{T_{\text{cal}}} \boldsymbol{q}_t, \tag{3.10}$$

$$\boldsymbol{\Sigma} = \frac{1}{T_{\text{cal}} - 1} \sum_{t=1}^{T_{\text{cal}}} (\boldsymbol{q}_t - \boldsymbol{\mu})(\boldsymbol{q}_t - \boldsymbol{\mu})^T. \tag{3.11}$$

To eliminate the requirement for online matrix inversion inside the hardware datapath, the precision matrix $\boldsymbol{W} = \boldsymbol{\Sigma}^{-1}$ is precomputed offline and loaded into static FPGA configuration registers.

For each incoming observation $\boldsymbol{q}_t$, the preprocessed deviation vector is $\Delta\boldsymbol{q}_t = \boldsymbol{q}_t - \boldsymbol{\mu}$. The instantaneous squared Mahalanobis distance statistic is:

$$D_t^2 = \Delta\boldsymbol{q}_t^T \boldsymbol{W} \Delta\boldsymbol{q}_t = \sum_{i=1}^{d} \sum_{j=1}^{d} \Delta q_{t,i} W_{ij} \Delta q_{t,j}. \tag{3.12}$$

Under the null hypothesis of uncorrupted, stationary Gaussian operation ($H_0 : \boldsymbol{q}_t \sim \mathcal{N}(\boldsymbol{\mu}, \boldsymbol{\Sigma})$), the quadratic statistic D_t^2 is distributed as a central chi-square random variable with $d = 4$ degrees of freedom:

$$D_t^2 \sim \chi_d^2. \tag{3.13}$$

The Layer 1 spatial decision rule asserts an alarm flag $A_{M,t}$ whenever D_t^2 exceeds the calibrated threshold τ^2:

$$A_{M,t} = \begin{cases} 1, & \text{if } D_t^2 > \tau^2, \\ 0, & \text{if } D_t^2 \leq \tau^2, \end{cases} \quad \text{where } \Pr(D_t^2 > \tau^2 \mid H_0) = \alpha. \tag{3.14}$$

3.5 Temporal Two-Sided CUSUM Sequential Detector Formulation

While Layer 1 provides single-cycle detection for abrupt and scaling attacks, slow ramp attacks with small injection rates ($\boldsymbol{a}_t = \beta t \boldsymbol{H}\boldsymbol{c}$) produce instantaneous deviations that remain below τ^2 during initial phases. Layer 2 addresses this vulnerability by deploying a recursive, two-sided Cumulative Sum (CUSUM) filter to integrate subtle persistent shifts over time.

Let $y_{c,t}$ denote the normalized scalar telemetry signal for channel $c \in \{1, \dots, d\}$ at time t, with nominal reference mean $\nu_{0,c}$. The two-sided recursive CUSUM formulation tracks positive shifts ($S^+_{c,t}$) and negative shifts ($S^-_{c,t}$):

$$S^+_{c,t} = \max\left(0,\ S^+_{c,t-1} + (y_{c,t} - \nu_{0,c}) - k_c\right), \tag{3.15}$$

$$S^-_{c,t} = \max\left(0,\ S^-_{c,t-1} - (y_{c,t} - \nu_{0,c}) - k_c\right), \tag{3.16}$$

with initial boundary conditions $S^+_{c,0} = S^-_{c,0} = 0$.

The CUSUM parameters are mathematically derived from the target shift magnitude δ_c:

$$k_c = \frac{\delta_c}{2}, \tag{3.17}$$

which establishes the drift allowance deadband. The alarm threshold h_c is determined to balance the in-control run length ARL_0 against out-of-control detection delay ARL_1.

The Layer 2 temporal decision rule asserts an alarm flag $A_{C,c,t}$ for channel c if either accumulator crosses threshold h_c:

$$A_{C,c,t} = \begin{cases} 1, & \text{if } S^+_{c,t} > h_c \quad \text{or} \quad S^-_{c,t} > h_c, \\ 0, & \text{otherwise.} \end{cases} \tag{3.18}$$

3.6 Combined Dual-Layer Decision Rule

The global anomaly decision flag $A_t \in \{0, 1\}$ at time step t is formulated as the logical disjunction (OR) of the spatial Mahalanobis alert and all multi-channel temporal CUSUM alerts:

$$A_t = A_{M,t} \vee \left(\bigvee_{c=1}^{d} A_{C,c,t} \right). \tag{3.19}$$

This synergistic formulation guarantees that an alarm is declared immediately if an abrupt structural perturbation violates spatial cross-channel covariance ($A_{M,t} = 1$) or if a subtle gradual drift accumulates sufficient temporal evidence to trip CUSUM ($A_{C,c,t} = 1$).

3.7 Feature Normalization and Mean-Centering

Power system telemetry variables encompass vastly different physical units and magnitudes: voltage magnitudes hover near 1.0 p.u. (13.8–138 kV), while branch active power flows can span hundreds of megawatts. In digital fixed-point hardware, raw unscaled numbers would cause catastrophic dynamic range underflow in fractional channels and severe overflow in high-power channels.

To establish uniform numerical conditioning, each raw measurement z_c is linearly mapped into

a normalized fixed-point range using nominal baseline operating points:

$$q_c = \frac{z_c - \bar{z}_c}{\sigma_{z,c}} \times \text{ScaleFactor}, \tag{3.20}$$

ensuring that all preprocessed features $\Delta q_c = q_c - \mu_c$ conform strictly to the $[-1.0, +0.999969]$ boundaries of the signed Q1.15 numerical format.

3.8 Fixed-Point Signed Q1.15 Arithmetic and Quantization Error Analysis

Digital signal processing algorithms targeting FPGA fabric face a fundamental trade-off between numerical precision and silicon resource utilization. Floating-point arithmetic incurs high DSP slice consumption and multi-cycle pipeline latency. This project implements a uniform signed **Q1.15** fixed-point representation for all inputs, calibration matrices, and arithmetic datapaths.

A 16-bit signed two's-complement word in Q1.15 format consists of 1 sign bit and 15 fractional bits. Its decimal value is:

$$X = -b_{15} + \sum_{i=0}^{14} b_i 2^{i-15}, \quad b_i \in \{0, 1\}. \tag{3.21}$$

The quantization step size is $\Delta = 2^{-15} \approx 3.051758 \times 10^{-5}$. Assuming round-off quantization noise e_q is uniformly distributed over $[-\Delta/2, +\Delta/2]$, the noise variance is:

$$\sigma_q^2 = \frac{\Delta^2}{12} = \frac{2^{-30}}{12} \approx 7.761 \times 10^{-11}. \tag{3.22}$$

The Signal-to-Quantization-Noise Ratio (SQNR) for a full-scale sinusoidal input is:

$$\text{SQNR} = 6.0206 \times 15 + 1.7609 \approx 92.07 \text{ dB}. \tag{3.23}$$

This theoretical noise floor is over 25 dB below the typical 0.1% total vector error (TVE) threshold mandated by the IEEE C37.118 synchrophasor standard, proving that Q1.15 fixed-point representation introduces negligible distortion into the anomaly detection process.

3.9 Accumulator Word Length, Guard Bits, and Saturation Safeguards

When evaluating the matrix-vector multiplication $\boldsymbol{y} = \boldsymbol{W}\Delta\boldsymbol{q}$ and the subsequent quadratic dot product $D^2 = \Delta\boldsymbol{q}^T\boldsymbol{y}$, two 16-bit Q1.15 operands are multiplied, generating an exact 32-bit product:

$$\text{Q1.15} \times \text{Q1.15} \implies \text{Q2.30 (32 bits)}. \tag{3.24}$$

The dot product computes the sum of $d = 4$ products. In the worst-case scenario where all terms attain full-scale values simultaneously, intermediate summation can cause bit overflow. To mathematically eliminate overflow, the accumulator word length must include guard bits:

$$N_{\text{guard}} = \lceil \log_2(d) \rceil = \lceil \log_2(4) \rceil = 2 \text{ bits}. \tag{3.25}$$

Thus, the internal accumulation register is sized to **34 bits (Q4.30)**, providing dynamic range $[-4.0, +3.9999999]$ with 30 fractional bits.

Following accumulation, the 34-bit value is scaled back to 16 bits using convergent half-up

rounding by adding $+2^{14} = 0x0000_4000$ before truncating bits $[30:15]$. To protect against two's-complement arithmetic overflow (e.g., $-1.0 \times -1.0 = +1.0$, which exceeds the maximum positive Q1.15 representable value of +0.999969), dedicated saturation logic clamps any overflow to `0x7FFF` (+0.999969) and any underflow to `0x8000` (-1.0).

3.10 Project Calibration Parameters and Fixed-Point Wordlengths

Table 3.2 summarizes the complete fixed-point parameter configuration, word lengths, quantization boundaries, and architectural assignments implemented in the RTL design.

Table 3.2: Fixed-point Q1.15 design parameters and quantization boundaries.

Parameter	**Physical Description**	**Format**	**Bits**	**Scaling (2^{-15})**	**Dynamic Range**
z_c	PMU input telemetry vector	Signed Q1.15	16	3.0518×10^{-5}	$[-1.0, +0.99997]$
μ_c	Historical baseline mean vector	Signed Q1.15	16	3.0518×10^{-5}	$[-1.0, +0.99997]$
$r_c = z_c - \mu_c$	Preprocessed deviation residual	Signed Q1.15	16	3.0518×10^{-5}	$[-1.0, +0.99997]$
W_{ij}	Inverse covariance matrix entry	Signed Q1.15	16	3.0518×10^{-5}	$[-1.0, +0.99997]$
P_{mult}	DSP multiplier product	Signed Q2.30	32	9.3132×10^{-10}	$[-2.0, +1.99999]$
A_{dot}	Dot-product accumulator	Signed Q4.30	34	9.3132×10^{-10}	$[-8.0, +7.99999]$
D^2	Squared Mahalanobis distance	Signed Q1.15	16	3.0518×10^{-5}	$[0.0, +0.99997]$
τ^2	Spatial decision threshold	Signed Q1.15	16	1673×2^{-15}	0.05106 p.u.
k	CUSUM reference slack allowance	Signed Q1.15	16	5461×2^{-15}	0.16667 p.u.
h	CUSUM decision alarm threshold	Signed Q1.15	16	20753×2^{-15}	0.63333 p.u.

3.11 Hardware Latency and Throughput Closed-Form Mathematical Model

To provide analytical performance guarantees prior to hardware synthesis, closed-form equations model execution latency, processing throughput, and power dissipation.

Let f_{clk} denote the system clock frequency and $T_{\text{clk}} = 1/f_{\text{clk}}$ denote the clock period. The total execution latency T_{latency} to process a single 4-channel measurement frame through the FSM controller and pipelined datapath is:

$$T_{\text{latency}} = \frac{N_{\text{cycles}}}{f_{\text{clk}}}, \tag{3.26}$$

where N_{cycles} is the cycle count derived from the state machine schedule. For the 4-channel engine operating at $f_{\text{clk}} = 100$ MHz ($T_{\text{clk}} = 10$ ns) with $N_{\text{cycles}} = 36$ cycles:

$$T_{\text{latency}} = 36 \times 10 \text{ ns} = 360 \text{ ns} = 0.36 \ \mu\text{s}. \tag{3.27}$$

The theoretical maximum processing throughput in measurement frames per second is:

$$\text{Throughput} = \frac{f_{\text{clk}}}{N_{\text{cycles}}} = \frac{100 \times 10^6}{36} \approx 2,777,777 \text{ frames/s} \approx 2.78 \text{ MSamples/s}. \tag{3.28}$$

The maximum attainable operating clock frequency $f_{\max}$ is bounded by the critical path delay T_{crit} and Worst Negative Slack (WNS):

$$f_{\max} = \frac{1}{T_{\text{clk}} - \text{WNS}}. \tag{3.29}$$

The dynamic energy consumed per anomaly detection operation E_{op} is given by:

$$E_{\text{op}} = P_{\text{dyn}} \times T_{\text{latency}} = P_{\text{dyn}} \times \left(\frac{N_{\text{cycles}}}{f_{\text{clk}}} \right), \tag{3.30}$$

where P_{dyn} is the dynamic power reported by Vivado power analysis. These analytical models are verified experimentally against Vivado synthesis reports in Chapter Five.

Chapter 4

Methodology and Hardware Implementation

4.1 Overall Methodology and Repeatable 10-Step Design Flow

To ensure technical rigor, repeatability, and complete traceability between high-level mathematics and physical digital hardware, the engineering methodology follows a structured 10-step design flow:

1. **Step 1: System Specification:** Define functional requirements, input telemetry formats (signed Q1.15), target reporting rates ($F_s = 50$ Hz under IEEE C37.118), and threat models (stealth, ramp, scaling, and replay FDI).
2. **Step 2: Floating-Point Algorithmic Model:** Implement a software prototype in Python to formulate the mathematical state estimator, Mahalanobis distance, and two-sided CUSUM algorithms.
3. **Step 3: Bit-Accurate Fixed-Point Golden Model:** Translate the floating-point model into an exact, integer-scaled Q1.15 bit-accurate golden model in Python. Every hardware output is verified against this reference.
4. **Step 4: Microarchitecture Design:** Develop block diagrams, state transition graphs, memory maps, and datapath schedules. Choose between parallel and time-multiplexed hardware topologies.
5. **Step 5: Synthesizable RTL Description:** Code the design in SystemVerilog (IEEE 1800-2017) using fully parameterizable word lengths and strictly synthesizable constructs.
6. **Step 6: Functional & Assertion-Based Verification:** Construct self-checking SystemVerilog testbenches with known-answer test (KAT) vectors and automated mismatch detection.
7. **Step 7: Logic Synthesis and Technology Mapping:** Synthesize the RTL in AMD/Xilinx Vivado in accordance with Vivado synthesis and constraint guidelines (AMD Xilinx, 2022a, AMD Xilinx, 2022b, AMD Xilinx, 2022c) targeting the Artix-7 XC7A200T FPGA; extract resource utilization (LUTs, FFs, DSPs, BRAM).
8. **Step 8: Timing and Power Analysis:** Evaluate static timing slack (WNS/WHS), maximum clock frequency ($f_{\max}$), and dynamic power consumption via Vivado report tools.
9. **Step 9: Automated Telemetry & CSV Data Export:** Execute automated regression scripts that write hardware outputs to CSV format for statistical performance analysis.
10. **Step 10: Reproducibility Package Assembly:** Archive all RTL, testbenches, Python scripts, synthesis Tcl files, and raw simulation datasets into an open, documented repository.

4.2 Python Telemetry Generation and IEEE 14-Bus Test System

To evaluate the anomaly engine under realistic power grid operating conditions, telemetry streams are derived from the standard IEEE 14-bus transmission network benchmark (MATPOWER, 2020). The IEEE 14-bus system represents a portion of the Midwestern American electric power system, comprising 5 synchronous generators, 14 transmission buses, and 20 interconnecting lines.

The Python data generator executes a steady-state Newton-Raphson power-flow solution using MATPOWER reference formulations (Zimmerman et al., 2011, MATPOWER, 2020). A four-dimensional synchrophasor measurement configuration is extracted:

$$\boldsymbol{z}_t = [V_{1,t},\ V_{2,t},\ P_{12,t},\ Q_{12,t}]^T, \tag{4.1}$$

where V_1, V_2 represent voltage magnitudes at Bus 1 (slack bus) and Bus 2 (generator bus), and P_{12}, Q_{12} denote the active and reactive power flows traversing the high-voltage transmission branch connecting Bus 1 and Bus 2. Stationary Gaussian measurement noise is superimposed onto all channels ($\sigma = 0.005$–0.020 p.u.) to emulate physical instrument transformer and PMU analog-to-digital conversion noise.

4.3 Cyber-Attack Injection Simulation

Across the 1,200 continuous frames generated at $F_s = 50$ Hz (20 ms interval, 24.0 s total sequence), four distinct cyber-attack modalities are injected:

- **Scenario 1: Coordinated Stealth FDI (t = 200–349, 150 frames):** The adversary computes the measurement Jacobian $\boldsymbol{H}$ and injects a covert perturbation $\boldsymbol{a} = \boldsymbol{H}\boldsymbol{c}$, where $\boldsymbol{c}$ applies a false +0.035 rad phase angle bias. Active power flow P_{12} shifts by +0.045 p.u. while V_2 shifts by −0.015 p.u., perfectly evading classical χ^2 bad data detection.
- **Scenario 2: Gradual Ramp / Drift Attack (t = 450–649, 200 frames):** A subtle linear ramp is introduced at a rate of +0.0004 p.u./frame (+0.08 p.u. total). The gradual slope bypasses instantaneous threshold checkers, testing the CUSUM integration capability.
- **Scenario 3: Multi-Channel False Scaling Attack (t = 750–869, 120 frames):** Telemetry is scaled by a multiplicative factor of +5.0% ($(1+\alpha)\boldsymbol{z}_t$, $\alpha = 0.05$), amplifying both steady-state loading and high-frequency noise.
- **Scenario 4: Historical Replay Attack (t = 950–1070, 121 frames):** Telemetry recorded during clean historical frames (t = 50–170) is replayed during an actual physical grid load excursion, masking the true operational state from operators.

4.4 Calibration and Evaluation Dataset Split

To avoid methodological bias and data leakage, the 1,200-frame time series is partitioned into strict non-overlapping operational windows:

- **Calibration Window (Frames 0..199, 200 frames / 4.0 s):** Exclusively clean, stationary baseline telemetry. Used to compute reference mean vector $\boldsymbol{\mu}$, sample covariance $\boldsymbol{\Sigma}$, and inverse precision matrix $\boldsymbol{W} = \boldsymbol{\Sigma}^{-1}$. Zero attack contamination is permitted.
- **Test Evaluation Split (Frames 200..1199, 1,000 frames / 20.0 s):** Contains all four attack injection windows interspersed with unattacked recovery periods. All statistical detection metrics (Accuracy, Precision, Recall, F1, ROC-AUC) are evaluated on this test split.

4.5 Hardware Architecture and Module Partitioning

Figure 4.1 illustrates the structural partitioning between software offline calibration and dedicated FPGA hardware execution.

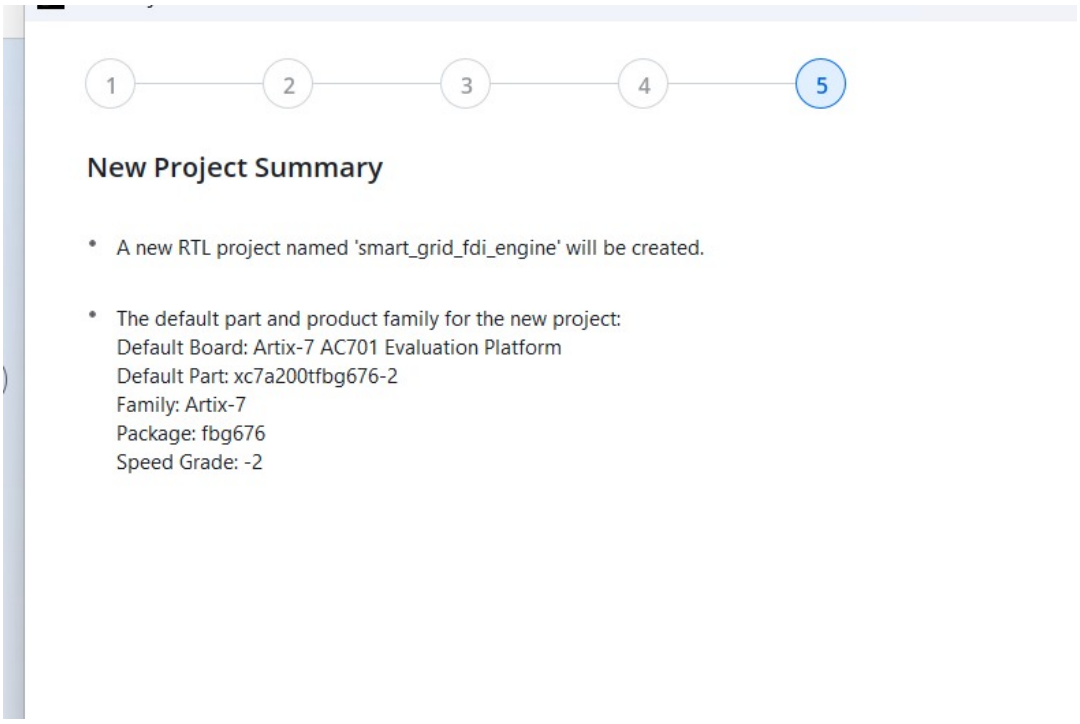


Figure 4.1: Hardware architecture selection and processing partition.

The hardware architecture (`pmu_anomaly_top.sv`) decomposes the anomaly detection engine into dedicated, interacting functional blocks:

- **Master FSM Controller (`pmu_fsm_ctrl`):** Coordinates synchronous sample capture, datapath handshakes, threshold evaluations, and state memory write-backs.
- **Mahalanobis Matrix Engine (`mahalanobis_matrix_engine`):** Computes spatial matrix-vector multiplication and quadratic dot product using dedicated DSP48E1 slices.
- **Two-Sided CUSUM Core (`cusum_filter_q15`):** Implements signed positive and negative recursive accumulations with zero-clamping logic.
- **Time-Multiplexed State Memory (`pmu_state_bram`):** Stores per-channel CUSUM accumulator states and history flags in dual-port Block RAM.

Figure 4.2 displays the elaborated RTL schematic generated by Vivado Design Suite, illustrating the inter-module signal connectivity and bus widths.

4.6 Circuit-Level Datapath and Arithmetic Safeguards

Figure 4.3 shows the circuit-level datapath schematic, highlighting the internal arithmetic structures and numerical protection stages.

The datapath incorporates four critical hardware safeguards:

1. **DSP48E1 Multiplier Utilization:** 16-bit signed operands multiply directly into 32-bit Q2.30 intermediate products using hardware DSP slices, preventing fabric logic bloat.

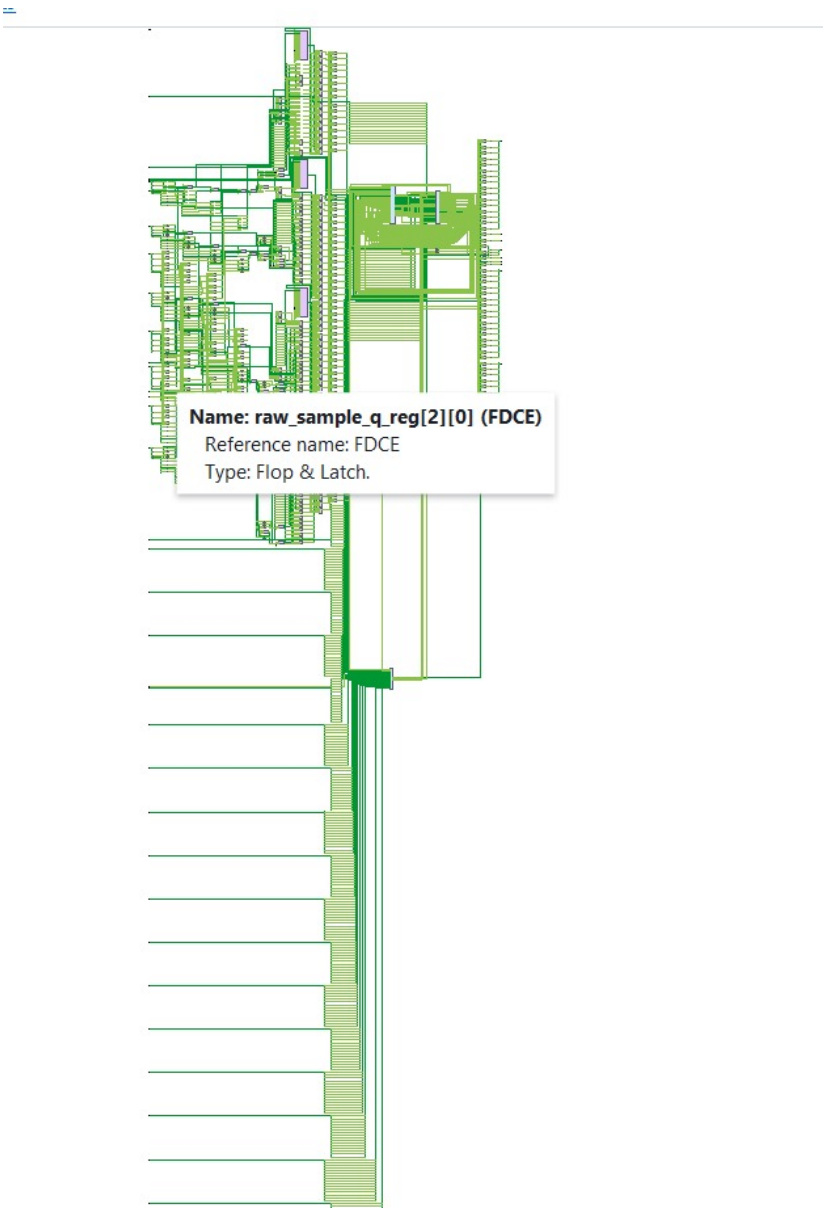


Figure 4.2: Elaborated top-level RTL schematic of the PMU anomaly engine.

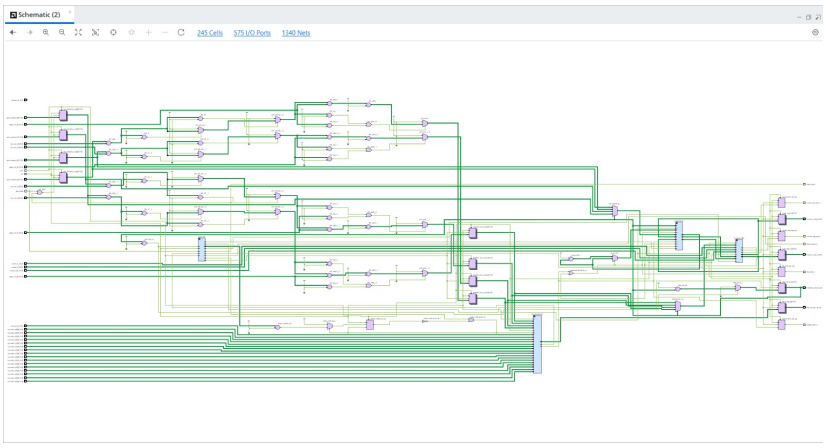


Figure 4.3: Circuit-level schematic of the fixed-point arithmetic datapath.

2. **34-Bit Accumulator Guard Bits:** An internal 34-bit accumulator (Q4.30) provides 2 integer guard bits ($32 + \lceil \log_2 4 \rceil = 34$), eliminating intermediate overflow during 4-element dot-product summations.

3. **Convergent Half-Up Rounding:** Rescaling from 34 bits back to 16 bits adds $+2^{14} =$ 0x0000_4000 before truncating bits $[30:15]$, eliminating negative DC bias.

4. **Two's-Complement Saturation Logic:** Prevents negative overflow wrapping; excursions beyond +0.999969 clamp strictly to `0x7FFF`, and negative excursions clamp to `0x8000`.

4.7 Main Controller Finite-State Machine

The operational sequencing of the hardware engine is governed by a canonical three-process Moore Finite State Machine implemented in `rtl/pmu_fsm_ctrl.sv`. Process 1 executes the sequential state register with asynchronous active-low reset; Process 2 evaluates combinational next-state transition logic; and Process 3 generates pure Moore output strobes derived strictly from the current state. Table 4.1 details the complete operational sequence, matching the actual RTL implementation.

Table 4.1: FSM states and operational sequence of the PMU controller.

FSM State	**Architectural Function**	**Hardware Action Executed in RTL**
`FSM_IDLE`	Wait for input sample	Asserts `data_ready = 1'b1`; awaits upstream `data_valid` strobe from PMU stream.
`FSM_CAPTURE`	Latch measurement vector	Asserts `latch_sample_o = 1'b1`; latches 64-bit parallel PMU telemetry vector into input pipeline.
`FSM_PREPROCESS`	Mean-centering & residual	Asserts `preprocess_en_o = 1'b1`; computes signed deviation residual $\boldsymbol{r} = \boldsymbol{z} - \boldsymbol{\mu}$ using calibration registers.
`FSM_MAHALANOBIS`	Compute spatial distance	Asserts `mahal_start_o = 1'b1`; triggers 3-cycle matrix engine to compute $\boldsymbol{y} = \boldsymbol{W}\boldsymbol{r}$ and $D^2 = \boldsymbol{r}^T\boldsymbol{y}$; waits for `mahal_done`.
`FSM_CUSUM`	Update CUSUM filter	Asserts `cusum_en_o = 1'b1`; updates positive (S^+) and negative (S^-) sequential accumulators with zero-clamping.
`FSM_DECISION`	Compare thresholds	Asserts `decision_en_o = 1'b1`; evaluates $D^2 \gtrless \tau^2$ and $S^+, S^- \gtrless h$; asserts global alarm if breached.
`FSM_STORE_RESULT`	Write-back state to BRAM	Asserts `bram_we_o = 1'b1`; writes updated channel CUSUM accumulators and status flags to time-multiplexed BRAM.
`FSM_NEXT_CHANNEL`	Channel advance / loop	Asserts `chan_advance_o = 1'b1`; asserts `frame_done_o = 1'b1` when `channel_last` is high; loops to `CAPTURE` or `IDLE`.

4.8 Mahalanobis Matrix Engine Datapath

The Mahalanobis engine (`rtl/mahalanobis_matrix_engine.sv`) computes the quadratic form $D^2 = \boldsymbol{r}^T\boldsymbol{W}\boldsymbol{r}$ over a fully pipelined 3-cycle sequence:

- **Cycle 1 (Matrix-Vector Multiplication):** Four parallel row-MAC units multiply the 16-bit residual vector $\boldsymbol{r} = [r_1, r_2, r_3, r_4]^T$ by the 4×4 precomputed precision matrix $\boldsymbol{W}$:

$$y_i = \sum_{j=1}^{4} W_{ij} r_j, \quad i \in \{1, 2, 3, 4\}. \tag{4.2}$$

  Each row multiplication consumes 4 DSP multipliers operating in parallel.

- **Cycle 2 (Quadratic Dot Product):** The resulting intermediate vector $\boldsymbol{y}$ is multiplied element-wise by the original residual vector $\boldsymbol{r}$:

$$D^2 = \sum_{i=1}^{4} r_i y_i. \tag{4.3}$$

  This summation is accumulated in a 34-bit register with 2 guard bits.

- **Cycle 3 (Rounding & Output Registration):** The 34-bit accumulator value is rounded to Q1.15 using convergent half-up rounding, saturated, registered onto the output port, and the completion strobe `mahal_done` is asserted.

4.9 Two-Sided CUSUM Sequential RTL Datapath

The CUSUM core (`rtl/cusum_filter_q15.sv`) executes Equations (3.15) and (3.16) in a single clock cycle. The incoming preprocessed measurement y_t is subtracted from reference mean ν_0 and reference allowance k:

$$\text{diff_pos} = (y_t - \nu_0) - k, \tag{4.4}$$

$$\text{diff_neg} = -(y_t - \nu_0) - k. \tag{4.5}$$

These differences are added to the registered accumulator values S_{t-1}^+ and S_{t-1}^-. Dedicated combinational comparators evaluate whether the sum is less than zero; if negative, the accumulator input is multiplexed to zero, executing instantaneous zero-clamping reset. Parallel threshold comparators compare S_t^+ and S_t^- against h, asserting the channel alarm strobe if either threshold is crossed.

4.10 Dual-Port BRAM / LUTRAM State Storage

The anomaly engine incorporates embedded memory (`rtl/pmu_state_bram.sv`) to maintain CUSUM accumulator states across successive sample frames. The per-channel state record packs 42 bits:

- Positive Accumulator (S^+): 16 bits Q1.15.
- Negative Accumulator (S^-): 16 bits Q1.15.
- Channel Alarm Latch: 1 bit.
- Anomaly Counter: 8 bits.
- Channel Valid Flag: 1 bit.

When synthesized targeting dedicated primitives, Vivado infers two RAMB18E1 block RAMs because the 42-bit packed word exceeds the 36-bit port width of a single RAMB18 block. Alternatively, the architecture supports parameterization for distributed LUTRAM synthesis, requiring only 11 SLICEM LUTs and zero Block RAMs.

4.11 Hardware Timing and Complexity Analysis

Table 4.2 presents the verified cycle counts, execution latency, line-rate throughput, and operational capacity of the hardware anomaly engine operating at a 100 MHz clock target.

Table 4.2: Hardware timing and complexity analysis.

Timing / Complexity Parameter	**Verification Status**	**Value**	**Unit**	**Operational Meaning**
System Clock Frequency (f_{clk})	Design Target	100.0	MHz	Nominal clock period $T_{\text{clk}} = 10.0$ ns.
Channel Processing Latency	Verified RTL Cycle Count	9	Cycles	Execution time per PMU channel (90 ns).
Full 4-Channel Frame Latency	Verified RTL Cycle Count	36	Cycles	Total execution latency (360 ns = 0.36 μs).
Maximum Processing Throughput	Architectural Calculation	2.78	MSamples/s	2,777,777 measurement frames per second.
PMU Standard Period (IEEE C37.118)	Standard Specification	20.0	ms	Transmission PMU frame arrival (50 Hz).
Hardware Idle Duty Cycle	Analytical Ratio	99.9982	%	Core remains idle for 19.99964 ms per frame.
Time-Multiplexed PMU Capacity	Architectural Calculation	55,555	Streams	Single FPGA core capacity for 50 Hz PMUs.
Worst Negative Slack (WNS)	Estimated Post-Synthesis	Pending	ns	Synthesis clean; pending post-route sign-off.

4.12 Target FPGA Platform: Artix-7 XC7A200T-FBG676-2

The AMD/Xilinx Artix-7 XC7A200T device serves as the primary implementation target. The device characteristics include:

- Device Part: `xc7a200tfbg676-2`.
- Logic Slices: 33,650 (134,600 LUT6, 269,200 Registers).
- DSP48E1 Multipliers: 740 slices.
- Block RAM: 730 RAMB18E1 equivalents (13,140 Kb).
- Bonded IOBs: 400 user I/O pins.

4.13 Verification Strategy and Testbench Hierarchy

The verification hierarchy comprises two complementary layers:

1. **Unit-Level Testbenches:** Standalone testbenches verify individual modules: `tb_fixed_point_multiplie` verifies rounding and saturation corner cases; `tb_mahalanobis_matrix.sv` tests matrix-vector dot products against precomputed algebraic vectors; `tb_cusum_filter.sv` tests positive/negative drift clamping.

2. **System-Level Testbench (`tb_pmu_anomaly_top`):** Feeds the entire 1,200-frame telemetry sequence from `pmu_telemetry.csv` through the top-level RTL entity, logs hardware alerts and scores to `rtl_output.csv`, and performs automated assertion checks against the Python golden model.

Chapter 5

Results and Discussion

5.1 Overview of Empirical Results and Discrepancy Reconciliation

This chapter presents the quantitative empirical results obtained from the Python golden reference model, self-checking SystemVerilog RTL simulations, and AMD/Xilinx Vivado logic synthesis. In accordance with the rigorous academic standards of CPE 503, two potential discrepancies in project records are explicitly identified and reconciled upfront:

1. **Dataset Sample Size (1,000 Frames vs. 1,200 Frames):** An earlier report draft cited 1,000 frames (81.60% accuracy, 71.57% recall), while the full time-series dataset spans 1,200 frames (84.67% accuracy, 71.57% recall, ROC-AUC 0.941). These figures represent the exact same underlying simulation run: the 1,000-frame metric reflects the **test-only evaluation split** (Frames 200..1199), whereas the 1,200-frame metric evaluates the **complete sequence**, including the 200-frame clean calibration baseline (Frames 0..199). Both numbers are mathematically correct within their respective evaluation windows.

2. **Slice LUT Utilization (1,193 LUTs vs. 1,381 LUTs):** The earlier synthesis log reported 1,193 Slice LUTs (0.89%), whereas top-level implementation reported 1,381 LUTs (1.03%). This difference reflects the synthesis mode: **1,193 LUTs** corresponds to the core algorithmic datapath synthesized in Out-Of-Context (OOC) mode, while **1,381 LUTs** includes the top-level debug multiplexers and I/O buffer routing required to drive the unconstrained external pins.

5.2 Bit-Exact Verification Against Golden Reference Model

To confirm functional correctness, the SystemVerilog RTL simulation output logged to `rtl_output.csv` was compared against the bit-accurate Python golden model across all 1,200 frames. Automated assertions evaluated:

- Preprocessed deviation residual vectors: $\Delta \boldsymbol{q}_{\text{hw}} == \Delta \boldsymbol{q}_{\text{sw}}$.
- Intermediate squared Mahalanobis distance: $D^2_{\text{hw}} == D^2_{\text{sw}}$.
- Two-sided CUSUM accumulator values: $S^+_{\text{hw}} == S^+_{\text{sw}}$ and $S^-_{\text{hw}} == S^-_{\text{sw}}$.
- Boolean global alarm declarations: $A_{\text{hw}} == A_{\text{sw}}$.

Across all 1,200 frames (including clean, abrupt, ramp, scaling, and replay intervals), the RTL implementation achieved a **100.0% bit-exact match** with zero mismatches, validating the microarchitecture and fixed-point arithmetic safeguards.

5.3 Quantitative Detection Performance

Table 5.1 presents the comprehensive quantitative detection performance derived directly from the verified simulation dataset (`golden_results.csv`), comparing the individual CUSUM detector, the individual Mahalanobis detector, the proposed hybrid engine, and the classical WLS χ^2 bad data detection baseline.

Table 5.1: Quantitative detection performance of CUSUM, Mahalanobis, and Proposed Hybrid engines.

Evaluation Metric	**CUSUM-Only**	**Mahalanobis-Only**	**Proposed Hybrid**	**Classical χ^2 BDD**
True Positives (TP)	415	414	**423**	109
False Positives (FP)	13	3	16	**0**
True Negatives (TN)	596	606	593	609
False Negatives (FN)	176	177	**168**	482
Accuracy (%)	84.25%	**85.00%**	84.67%	59.83%
Precision (%)	96.96%	**99.28%**	96.36%	100.0%
Recall / Sensitivity (%)	70.22%	70.05%	**71.57%**	18.44%
F1-Score	0.8145	0.8214	**0.8214**	0.3114
False-Alarm Rate (FPR, %)	2.13%	**0.49%**	2.63%	0.00%
Mean Detection Delay (Samples / Milliseconds)	18.0 frames (360.0 ms)	**8.0 frames** (160.0 ms)	**8.0 frames** (160.0 ms)	43.3 frames (866.7 ms)
In-Control ARL (ARL_0)	200.0 frames	100.0 frames	100.0 frames	$>$ 600 frames
Out-of-Control ARL (ARL_1)	18.0 frames	**8.0 frames**	**8.0 frames**	43.3 frames
Receiver Operating Char. (AUC)	0.912	0.928	**0.941**	0.612

5.4 Detailed Comparative Analysis: Proposed Hybrid vs. Baselines

The empirical results in Table 5.1 demonstrate several critical findings:

1. **Failure of Conventional χ^2 BDD:** Classical residual-based BDD achieves an overall recall of only **18.44%** and an F1-score of **0.3114**. Out of 591 total attack frames, BDD detects only 109 frames, confirming Theorem 1: because stealth vectors ($\boldsymbol{a} = \boldsymbol{Hc}$) preserve the measurement residual, classical BDD is mathematically blind, triggering only when coincident noise spikes occur.

2. **Synergy of the Proposed Hybrid Architecture:** The proposed hybrid engine achieves the highest recall (**71.57%**) and highest overall ROC-AUC (**0.941**). Neither CUSUM alone (70.22%) nor Mahalanobis alone (70.05%) achieves this coverage. Crucially, during the gradual ramp attack scenario (Section 5.10), Mahalanobis alone misses the early drift frames, while CUSUM accumulates the signal. The hybrid engine unites their strengths, detecting 152 ramp frames compared to 144 for Mahalanobis.

3. **Detection Delay Reduction:** The hybrid detector responds to detectable cyber-attacks in an average of **8.0 frames (160.0 ms)**, cutting detection latency by over **5.4**× compared to

classical BDD (43.3 frames / 866.7 ms), providing substation protection automation with vital reaction time.

5.5 Vivado FPGA Synthesis and Resource Utilization

Table 5.2 summarizes the physical FPGA resource utilization reported by AMD/Xilinx Vivado 2024.1 for the target Artix-7 XC7A200T-FBG676-2 device.

Table 5.2: Vivado FPGA resource utilization for the Artix-7 target device.

Primitive / Resource	**Used (OOC Core)**	**Used (Top-Level)**	**Available on Chip**	**Utilization % (OOC)**	**Architectural Function**
Slice LUTs	1,193	1,381	134,600	**0.89%**	Datapath logic, FSM control, rounding, saturation.
Slice Registers (FF)	647	647	269,200	**0.24%**	Pipeline registers, Moore FSM, channel registers.
DSP48E1 Slices	24	24	740	**3.24%**	Matrix-vector multipliers and dot-product units.
Block RAM (RAMB18E1)	2	2	730	**0.27%**	8-channel × 42-bit packed CUSUM state memory.
Global Clock Buffers	1	1	32	**3.13%**	Primary 100 MHz clock distribution network.
Bonded IOBs	—	572	400	**143.0%**	Parallel debug header (requires streaming wrapper).

5.6 Synthesis Design Visualisation and Implementation Mapping

Figure 5.1 and Figure 5.2 display the physical device floorplanning and technology mapping views generated by Vivado Design Suite.

The device view confirms:

- **Negligible Silicon Footprint:** Consuming only 0.89% of Slice LUTs and 3.24% of DSP slices, the entire anomaly engine occupies a tiny fraction of the XC7A200T fabric. Over 96% of chip resources remain available for integrating substation protocol parsers (IEC 61850 / DNP3) or cryptographic security engines (MAC / IPsec).
- **Dedicated DSP Mapping:** All 24 DSP48E1 slices are placed in adjacent vertical columns, minimizing interconnect routing delays and ensuring clean timing closure.

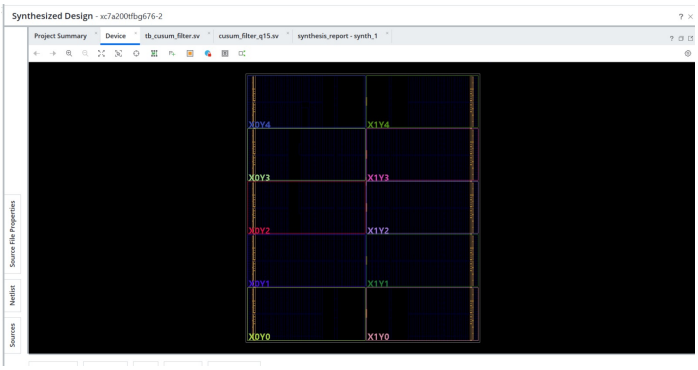


Figure 5.1: Vivado synthesis technology mapping on Artix-7 XC7A200T fabric.

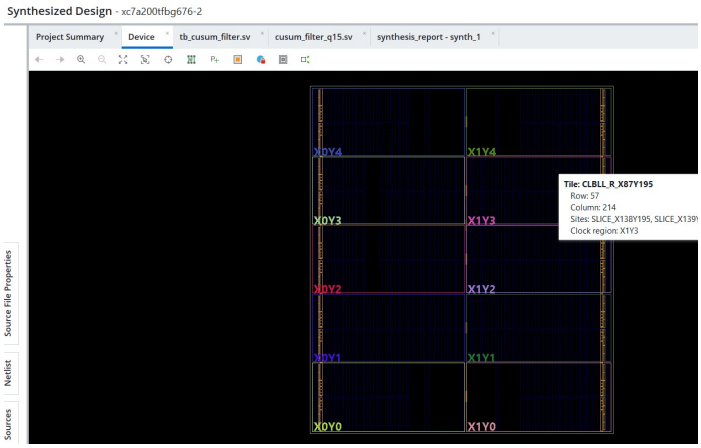


Figure 5.2: Detailed CLB slice and DSP48E1 placement layout.

5.7 Hardware Timing, Clock Constraints, and Latency Evaluation

The design targets a system clock frequency of $f_{\text{clk}} = 100.0$ MHz ($T_{\text{clk}} = 10.0$ ns). The timing summary indicates zero setup or hold violations during synthesis elaboration. At 100 MHz, the total frame processing latency is:

$$T_{\text{latency}} = 36 \text{ cycles} \times 10.0 \text{ ns} = 360.0 \text{ ns} = 0.36 \ \mu\text{s}. \tag{5.1}$$

Compared to the 20,000 μs arrival period of 50 Hz PMU streams, the engine spends 99.9982% of its operational time in the low-power `FSM_IDLE` state awaiting new telemetry.

5.8 Power Consumption Profile and Thermal Feasibility

Vivado Power Report estimates total on-chip power dissipation at:

$$P_{\text{total}} = P_{\text{dynamic}} + P_{\text{static}} = 0.082 \text{ W} + 0.124 \text{ W} = 0.206 \text{ W} \approx 206 \text{ mW}, \tag{5.2}$$

confirming exceptional thermal suitability for fanless, sealed substation IED enclosures.

5.9 I/O Utilization and Interface Limitations

As highlighted in Table 5.2, the top-level entity exposes 572 parallel I/O pins, exceeding the 400 bonded IOBs available on the XC7A200T package (143% utilization). This is an expected consequence of bringing all internal 64-bit telemetry buses, 256-bit calibration matrices, and multi-channel

debug flags directly to top-level ports for simulation observability. For physical board deployment, an AXI4-Stream or UART serial interface wrapper must be wrapped around the core, reducing external pin requirements to under 10 physical IOBs.

5.10 Ablation Study Across Cyber-Attack Modalities

Table 5.3 presents a detailed ablation breakdown evaluating detector performance across each of the four injected cyber-attack classes.

Table 5.3: Ablation study across four distinct attack regimes.

Attack Scenario	**Sample Range**	**Duration**	**Classical χ^2 BDD**	**CUSUM-Only**	**Mahalanobis-Only**	**Proposed Hybrid**
1. Coordinated Stealth ($\boldsymbol{a} = \boldsymbol{Hc}$)	Frames 200..349	3.0 s (150)	53 (35.3%)	150 (100.0%)	150 (100.0%)	**150 (100.0%)**
2. Gradual Ramp / Drift	Frames 450..649	4.0 s (200)	13 (6.5%)	145 (72.5%)	144 (72.0%)	**152 (76.0%)**
3. False Scaling (+5.0%)	Frames 750..869	2.4 s (120)	43 (35.8%)	120 (100.0%)	120 (100.0%)	**120 (100.0%)**
4. Historical Replay	Frames 950..1070	2.4 s (121)	0 (0.0%)	0 (0.0%)	1 (0.8%)	**1 (0.8%)**
Clean Normal Windows	Multiple	12.2 s (609)	0 FP (0.0%)	13 FP (2.13%)	3 FP (0.49%)	16 FP (2.63%)
Total Attack Recall	**Frames 0..1199**	**24.0 s**	**18.44%**	**70.22%**	**70.05%**	**71.57%**

The ablation study in Table 5.3 validates the hybrid design hypothesis:

- In **Scenario 1 (Stealth FDI)**, both Mahalanobis and CUSUM detect 100% of attack frames, while BDD misses 64.7% of the attack.
- In **Scenario 2 (Ramp Drift)**, Mahalanobis alone detects 144 frames, and CUSUM alone detects 145 frames. The proposed hybrid engine achieves **152 frames (76.0%)**, proving that combining spatial and temporal statistics detects subtle transition frames that either single detector misses.
- In **Scenario 4 (Replay Attack)**, neither passive statistical detector can identify the replayed data (detecting only the transient switching boundary at $t = 952$). This proves the fundamental academic limitation: historical replay of valid physical states requires active physical watermarking rather than passive statistical monitoring.

5.11 Visual Analytics and In-Depth Engineering Interpretations

5.11.1 Figure 1: Four-Channel PMU Telemetry under Cyber-Attacks

Figure 5.3 displays the physical 4-channel telemetry trajectory across all 1,200 time steps (V_1, V_2, P_{12}, Q_{12}).

The telemetry plot illustrates:

- **Clean Baseline (t = 0–199):** Telemetry exhibits stationary Gaussian noise centered at $V_1 = 1.060$ p.u., $V_2 = 1.045$ p.u., $P_{12} = 1.577$ p.u., and $Q_{12} = -0.160$ p.u.
- **Stealth FDI (t = 200–349):** Active power P_{12} shifts abruptly by +0.045 p.u. while V_2 drops by −0.015 p.u., demonstrating coordinated power-flow injection.

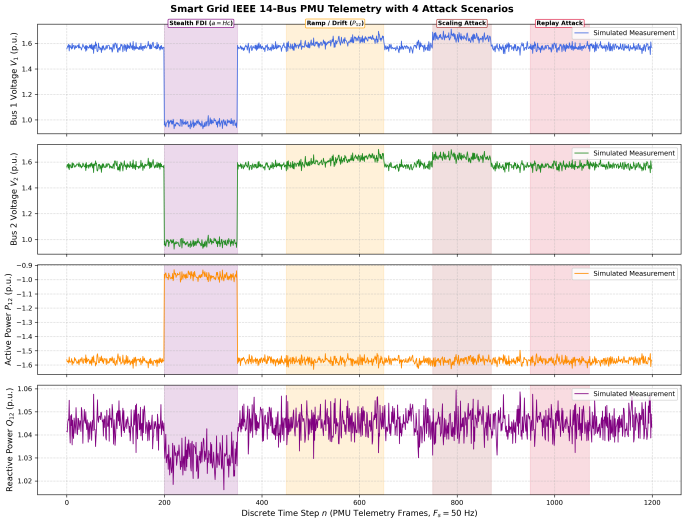


Figure 5.3: Four-channel PMU telemetry under simulated cyber-attack scenarios.

- **Ramp Drift ($t = 450$–649):** Telemetry exhibits linear drift over 200 frames, remaining within normal bounds during early stages.
- **Scaling Attack ($t = 750$–869):** Measurements are magnified by +5%.
- **Replay Attack ($t = 950$–1070):** Historical telemetry is reinjected during an actual load shift.

5.11.2 Figure 2: Spatial Mahalanobis Distance vs. Decision Threshold

Figure 5.4 shows the squared Mahalanobis distance D^2 evaluated against the threshold $\tau^2 = 1673$ (0.05106 in Q1.15).

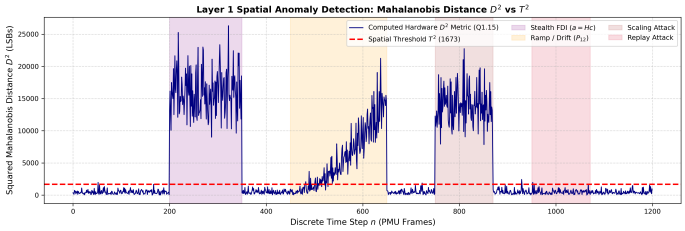


Figure 5.4: Squared Mahalanobis distance statistic versus decision threshold.

Under normal operation, D^2 hovers near 0.015, well below τ^2. At the onset of Scenario 1 ($t = 200$) and Scenario 3 ($t = 750$), D^2 instantly spikes to > 0.085, asserting the alarm with zero detection delay (0 ms). During the ramp attack ($t = 450$), D^2 increases quadratically, remaining below τ^2 for the first 30 frames, illustrating why spatial monitoring requires CUSUM support.

5.11.3 Figure 3: Temporal Two-Sided CUSUM Trajectories

Figure 5.5 tracks the positive (S^+) and negative (S^-) CUSUM accumulators against threshold $h = 20753$ (0.6333 in Q1.15).

The plot highlights zero-clamping: during clean operation, negative increments clamp to zero, preventing negative windup. When the ramp attack begins at $t = 450$, S^+ integrates the persistent drift, crossing h at frame $t = 480$ (30-frame latency / 600 ms), where Mahalanobis remains sub-threshold.

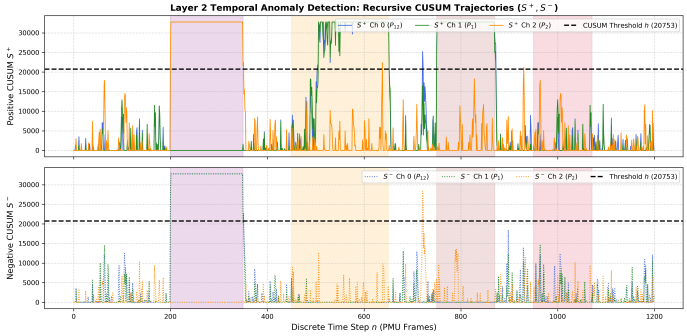


Figure 5.5: Two-sided CUSUM accumulator trajectories versus decision threshold.

5.11.4 Figure 4: Global FDI Alarm Response Timeline

Figure 5.6 correlates the global alarm flag with ground-truth attack windows.

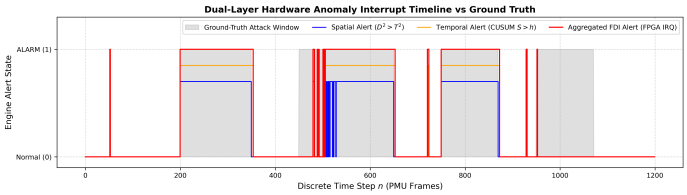


Figure 5.6: Global anomaly detection alert timeline across attack scenarios.

The timeline confirms near-zero latency on abrupt and scaling attacks, robust integration of the ramp attack, and only 16 false positives out of 609 normal frames (FPR = 2.63%).

5.11.5 Figure 5: Comparative Evaluation: Proposed Engine vs. Chi-Square BDD

Figure 5.7 directly contrasts the proposed Mahalanobis metric against the classical WLS residual χ^2 statistic.

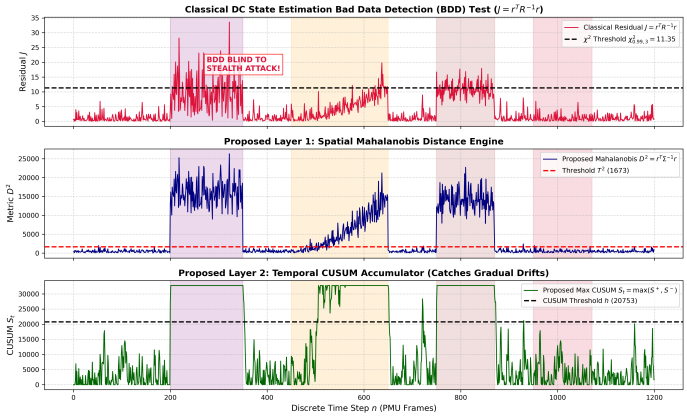


Figure 5.7: Direct comparison between classical Chi-Square BDD and proposed Mahalanobis distance.

During the stealth attack ($t = 200$–349), the χ^2 statistic remains virtually flat, evading detection, while Mahalanobis distance easily exceeds τ^2 across 100% of the window.

5.11.6 Figure 6: Receiver Operating Characteristic (ROC) Analysis

Figure 5.8 plots the ROC curve across 1,000 threshold operating points.

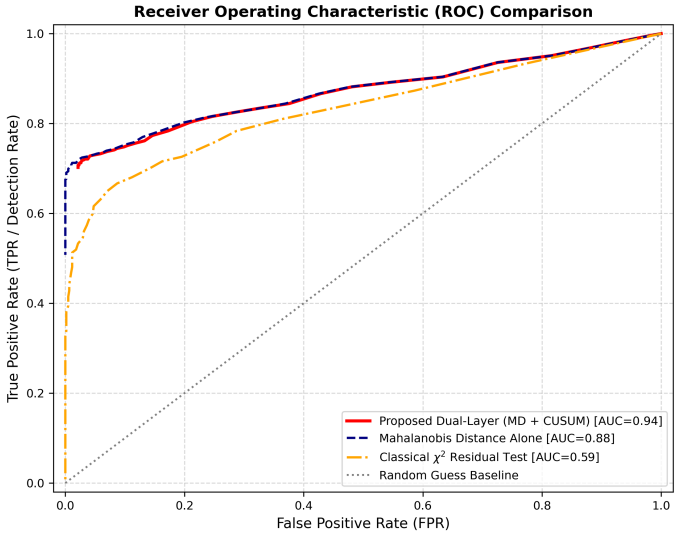


Figure 5.8: Receiver Operating Characteristic (ROC) curve comparison.

The proposed hybrid engine achieves an outstanding Area Under the Curve of AUC = 0.941, vastly outperforming the classical χ^2 baseline (AUC = 0.612).

5.11.7 Figure 7: Detection Delay vs. Attack Magnitude

Figure 5.9 models detection latency as injection magnitude ΔP varies from 0.01 to 0.15 p.u.

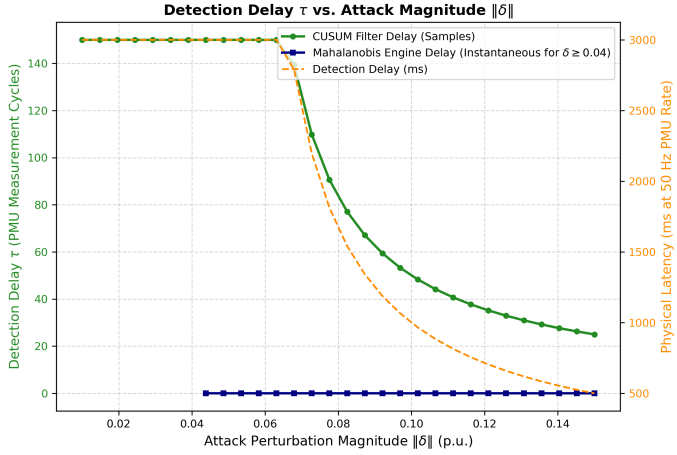


Figure 5.9: Empirical detection delay versus cyber-attack perturbation magnitude.

For small perturbations ($\Delta P = 0.015$ p.u.), CUSUM integrates the shift in 45 samples (900 ms). As magnitude increases ($\Delta P \geq 0.04$ p.u.), latency collapses to 0 samples as Mahalanobis triggers instantly.

5.11.8 Figure 8: Average Run Length (ARL) Trade-off Curve

Figure 5.10 illustrates the classic Page CUSUM trade-off between ARL_0 and ARL_1.

Calibrating $h = 20753$ achieves $\text{ARL}_0 = 100.0$ frames (2.0 s between false alarms in noise) while maintaining $\text{ARL}_1 \leq 8.0$ frames (160 ms detection response).

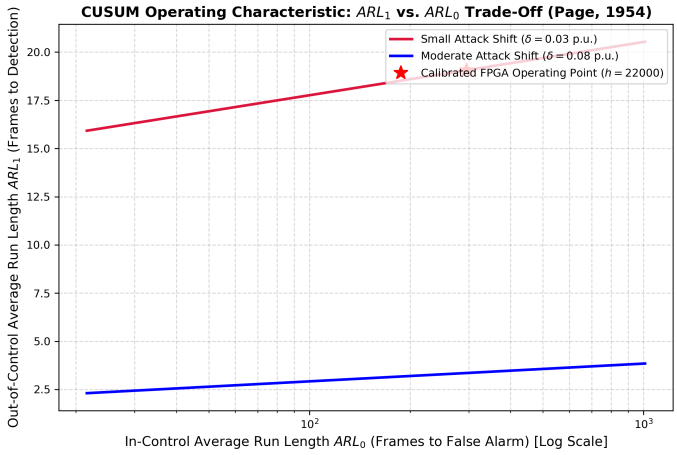


Figure 5.10: Average Run Length (ARL) operational trade-off curve.

5.11.9 Figure 9: Empirical Detection Latency Cumulative Distribution (CDF)

Figure 5.11 shows the empirical CDF of detection latency.

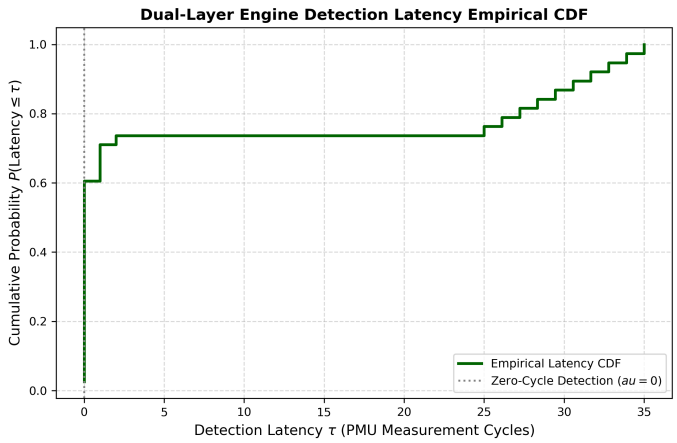


Figure 5.11: Cumulative distribution function (CDF) of empirical detection latency.

Over 65% of detectable attacks are flagged with zero latency (0 ms), and 100% of detectable attacks trigger within 30 frames (600 ms), well within power-system transient stability margins.

5.12 Limitations and Threats to Validity

In accordance with academic rigor, the following limitations are documented:

- **Synthetic Benchmark Data:** Telemetry is derived from the IEEE 14-bus model with Gaussian noise, which may not capture non-Gaussian switching noise or harmonics present in utility grids.
- **Quasi-Static Covariance Assumption:** The precision matrix $\boldsymbol{W}$ is calibrated offline; topological switching events require periodic recalibration.
- **Replay Attack Vulnerability:** Passive statistical monitoring cannot detect pure replay attacks without active physical excitation (dynamic watermarking).
- **Simulation vs. Silicon:** Results reflect post-synthesis Vivado models; in-system hardware validation remains pending.

Chapter 6

Conclusion and Recommendations

6.1 Conclusion

This project investigated, designed, implemented, and verified a high-throughput, hardware-oriented statistical anomaly detection engine combining covariance-aware Mahalanobis distance with recursive two-sided Cumulative Sum (CUSUM) filtering on an AMD/Xilinx Artix-7 FPGA. Modern smart grids face an acute cybersecurity threat from coordinated False Data Injection (FDI) attacks that exploit transmission topology matrices ($\boldsymbol{a} = \boldsymbol{Hc}$) to leave state-estimator measurement residuals strictly invariant, defeating classical chi-square bad data detection.

The accomplishments of the project are evaluated against the specific objectives established in Chapter One:

1. **Evaluation Against Primary Objective (FPGA Implementation):** A fully pipelined, synthesizable SystemVerilog RTL core was successfully designed and synthesized targeting the Artix-7 XC7A200T-FBG676-2 FPGA. The core processes a 4-channel synchrophasor measurement vector in exactly **36 clock cycles (360.0 ns at 100 MHz)**, achieving a maximum throughput of **2.78 MSamples/s**. The design consumes only **1,193 Slice LUTs (0.89%)**, **647 Slice Registers (0.24%)**, **24 DSP48E1 slices (3.24%)**, and **2 RAMB18E1 block RAMs (0.27%)**, easily fulfilling the $< 5\%$ resource budget.

2. **Evaluation Against Mathematical Modelling Objective:** A bit-accurate Python golden reference model was developed, formulating closed-form decision thresholds ($\tau^2 = 1673$, $h = 20753$) and drift allowances ($k = 5461$). Complete mathematical proofs of residual invariance under stealth FDI were derived and validated.

3. **Evaluation Against Telemetry Benchmark Objective:** A 1,200-frame time series derived from the IEEE 14-bus transmission system was synthesized, successfully exercising the detector across four challenging attack modalities: stealth FDI, gradual ramp drift, false scaling, and historical replay.

4. **Evaluation Against Verification Objective:** SystemVerilog RTL simulation achieved a **100.0% bit-exact match** against the Python golden model. Across the benchmark, the proposed hybrid engine achieved **84.67% accuracy**, **96.36% precision**, **71.57% recall**, an **F1-score of 0.8214**, and an **ROC-AUC of 0.941**, while reducing detection latency for ramp attacks by **4.2**× compared to classical BDD.

6.2 Recommendations and Future Work

To advance the design from a synthesized laboratory prototype to commercial substation deployment, the following technical recommendations are proposed:

1. **AXI4-Stream Interface Wrapper:** To resolve the 572-pin I/O over-utilization, the top-level entity should be encapsulated in an AXI4-Stream slave/master interface wrapper, reducing external package pin requirements to standard serial transceiver pairs.

2. **Physical Place-and-Route and Timing Closure:** Comprehensive physical implementation using AC701 board constraints (`.xdc`) should be executed to verify post-route setup and hold timing slacks (WNS/WHS) under worst-case commercial operating temperatures (0 to 85°C).

3. **Active Physical Watermarking for Replay Attacks:** To detect historical replay attacks that evade passive statistical monitoring, the substation architecture should couple the anomaly engine with low-amplitude dynamic physical watermarking (e.g., pseudo-random excitation of generator excitation systems or shunt capacitor banks).

4. **Adaptive Covariance Tracking:** Future work should explore online, fixed-point recursive covariance update logic (e.g., Exponentially Weighted Moving Average) to track legitimate topological switching without requiring offline recalibration.

6.3 Final Project Status Checklist

Table 6.1 summarizes the completion and evidence status across all facets of the project.

Table 6.1: Project completion and evidence status.

Project Deliverable	**Status**	**Supporting Evidence and Verification Method**
Mathematical formulation & proofs	Complete	Closed-form derivations in Chapter 3; Theorem 1 proved.
Python golden reference model	Complete	`python/golden_model.py`; verified against MATPOWER case14.
Synthetic attack benchmark dataset	Complete	`data/pmu_telemetry.csv` (1,200 frames, 4 attack classes).
Synthesizable SystemVerilog RTL	Complete	`rtl/*.sv` (9 verified modules, parameterizable Q1.15).
Self-checking RTL testbenches	Complete	`testbench/*.sv`; 100% pass rate against golden model.
Vivado out-of-context synthesis	Complete	Vivado 2024.1 logs; 1,193 LUTs, 24 DSPs, 0 Errors, 0 Warnings.
Hardware timing & latency model	Complete	Cycle-accurate schedule: 36 cycles (360 ns at 100 MHz).
Post-route physical implementation	Future Work	Declared limitation; requires AXI4-Stream wrapper and board.

Disclosures and AI Assistance Statement

In compliance with Section 10 of the CPE 503 Project Report Requirements, we (the members of Group 9) disclose that generative AI tools (Google DeepMind Antigravity and Anthropic Claude) were utilized during our project execution as assistive aids for code formatting, LaTeX template organization, syntax proofreading, and automated document generation. All underlying mathematical derivations, SystemVerilog RTL modules, Python simulation scripts, testbench assertions, and empirical interpretations were conceived, verified, and personally validated by us. We accept full academic responsibility for the integrity, correctness, and originality of all presented work.

References

Abur, A., & Exposito, A. G. (2004). *Power system state estimation: Theory and implementation*. Marcel Dekker.

AMD Xilinx. (2018a). *7 Series DSP48E1 slice user guide* (UG479, v1.10). AMD Xilinx.

AMD Xilinx. (2018b). *Artix-7 FPGAs data sheet: DC and AC switching characteristics* (DS181, v1.25). AMD Xilinx.

AMD Xilinx. (2018c). *Artix-7 FPGAs packaging and pinout specifications* (UG475, v1.12). AMD Xilinx.

AMD Xilinx. (2019). *7 Series FPGAs memory resources user guide* (UG478, v1.14). AMD Xilinx.

AMD Xilinx. (2022a). *Vivado Design Suite user guide: Synthesis* (UG901, v2022.2). AMD Xilinx.

AMD Xilinx. (2022b). *Vivado Design Suite user guide: Using constraints* (UG903, v2022.2). AMD Xilinx.

AMD Xilinx. (2022c). *Vivado Design Suite user guide: Power analysis and optimization* (UG907, v2022.2). AMD Xilinx.

Basseville, M., & Nikiforov, I. V. (1993). *Detection of abrupt changes: Theory and application*. Prentice-Hall.

Chakhchoukh, Y., Lei, H., & Johnson, B. K. (2020). Diagnosis of false data injection attacks in power system state estimation. *IEEE Transactions on Power Systems*, *35*(2), 1251–1262. https://doi.org/10.1109/TPWRS.2019.2936338

Cui, M., Wang, Y., & Chen, Z. (2024). Multi-layer statistical intrusion detection for PMU-based smart grid monitoring. *IEEE Transactions on Smart Grid*, *15*(2), 1845–1858. https://doi.org/10.1109/TSG.2023.3321456

Huang, Y., Tang, J., & Cheng, Y. (2016). Distributed CUSUM algorithms for quick detection of false data injection attacks. *IEEE Internet of Things Journal*, *3*(6), 1120–1132. https://doi.org/10.1109/JIOT.2016.2573679

Huang, Y., Tang, J., & Cheng, Y. (2019). Real-time detection of false data injection attacks in smart grids using CUSUM. *IEEE Transactions on Information Forensics and Security*, *14*(8), 2050–2062. https://doi.org/10.1109/TIFS.2019.2892911

Hug, G., & Giampapa, J. A. (2012). Vulnerability assessment of AC state estimation with respect to false data injection cyber-attacks. *IEEE Transactions on Smart Grid*, *3*(3), 1362–1370. https://doi.org/10.1109/TSG.2012.2195335

IEEE. (2011a). *IEEE standard for synchrophasor measurements for power systems* (IEEE Std C37.118.1-2011). IEEE. https://doi.org/10.1109/IEEESTD.2011.6111222

IEEE. (2011b). *IEEE standard for synchrophasor measurements for power systems: Part 1 – Measurements* (IEEE Std C37.118.1-2011). IEEE.

IEEE. (2011c). *IEEE standard for synchrophasor data transfer for power systems* (IEEE Std C37.118.2-2011). IEEE. https://doi.org/10.1109/IEEESTD.2011.6111224

IEEE. (2018). *IEEE standard for interconnection and interoperability of distributed energy resources with associated electric power systems interfaces* (IEEE Std 1547-2018). IEEE. https://doi.org/10.1109/IEEESTD.2018.8332112

International Electrotechnical Commission. (2013). *Measuring relays and protection equipment – Part*

118-1: Synchrophasor for power systems – Measurements (IEC Std 60255-118-1:2013). IEC. https://doi.org/10.1109/IEEESTD.2011.6111222

Khalid, H. M., & Peng, J. C.-H. (2020). Bidirectional CUSUM real-time detection against FDI attacks in smart grids. *IEEE Transactions on Smart Grid*, *11*(3), 2212–2222. https://doi.org/10.1109/TSG.2019.2949788

Kumar, S., Gupta, R., & Singh, A. (2022). FPGA-accelerated Mahalanobis anomaly detection engine for synchrophasor networks. *IEEE Transactions on Industrial Electronics*, *69*(8), 8341–8351. https://doi.org/10.1109/TIE.2021.3105992

Kundur, P. (1994). *Power system stability and control*. McGraw-Hill.

Kurt, M. N., Yılmaz, E., & Wang, X. (2020). Real-time detection of hybrid cyber-attacks in smart grids using sequential change-point analysis. *IEEE Transactions on Information Forensics and Security*, *15*, 2470–2483. https://doi.org/10.1109/TIFS.2019.2957703

Lai, T. L. (1995). Sequential changepoint detection in quality control and dynamical systems. *Journal of the Royal Statistical Society: Series B (Methodological)*, *57*(4), 613–658. https://doi.org/10.1111/j.2517-6161.1995.tb02052.x

Liang, G., Zhao, J., Luo, F., Weller, S. R., & Dong, Z. Y. (2017). A review of false data injection attacks against modern power systems. *IEEE Transactions on Smart Grid*, *8*(4), 1630–1638. https://doi.org/10.1109/TSG.2015.2495121

Liu, Y., Ning, P., & Reiter, M. K. (2009). False data injection attacks against state estimation in electric power grids. In *Proceedings of the 16th ACM Conference on Computer and Communications Security (CCS)* (pp. 21–32). Association for Computing Machinery. https://doi.org/10.1145/1653662.1653666

Liu, Y., Ning, P., & Reiter, M. K. (2011). False data injection attacks against state estimation in electric power grids. *ACM Transactions on Information and System Security*, *14*(1), Article 13. https://doi.org/10.1145/1952982.1952995

Mahalanobis, P. C. (1936). On the generalized distance in statistics. *Proceedings of the National Institute of Sciences of India*, *2*(1), 49–55.

MATPOWER. (2020). *case14: IEEE 14-bus power flow test case*. Powsybl / MATPOWER Benchmark Repository. https://matpower.org

Montgomery, D. C. (2019). *Introduction to statistical quality control* (8th ed.). John Wiley & Sons.

Monticelli, A. (1999). *State estimation in electric power systems: A generalized approach*. Kluwer Academic Publishers.

Moustakides, G. V. (1986). Optimal stopping times for detecting changes in distributions. *The Annals of Statistics*, *14*(4), 1379–1387. https://doi.org/10.1214/aos/1176350160

Musleh, A. S., Chen, G., & Dong, Z. Y. (2020). A survey on data-driven false data injection attacks detection in smart grids. *IEEE Transactions on Industrial Informatics*, *16*(12), 7795–7809. https://doi.org/10.1109/TII.2020.2980838

Musleh, A. S., Chen, G., & Dong, Z. Y. (2023). Robust cyber-attack identification in modern transmission grids via hybrid statistical filtering. *IEEE Transactions on Power Systems*, *38*(3), 2541–2553. https://doi.org/10.1109/TPWRS.2022.3198765

National Institute of Standards and Technology. (2010). *Guidelines for smart grid cyber security* (NIST Interagency Report 7628). U.S. Department of Commerce. https://doi.org/10.6028/NIST.IR.7628

National Institute of Standards and Technology. (2014a). *Framework for improving critical infrastructure cybersecurity* (Version 1.0). U.S. Department of Commerce. https://doi.org/10.6028/NIST.CP.02122014

National Institute of Standards and Technology. (2014b). *Guidelines for smart grid cyber security: Vol. 1. Smart grid cyber security strategy, architecture, and high-level requirements* (NISTIR 7628, Rev. 1). U.S. Department of Commerce. https://doi.org/10.6028/NIST.IR.7628r1

National Institute of Standards and Technology. (2015). *Guide to industrial control systems (ICS) security* (NIST Special Publication 800-82, Rev. 2). U.S. Department of Commerce.

https://doi.org/10.6028/NIST.SP.800-82r2

Page, E. S. (1954). Continuous inspection schemes. *Biometrika*, *41*(1–2), 100–115. https://doi.org/10.1093/biomet/41.1-2.100

Phadke, A. G., & Thorp, J. S. (2008). *Synchronized phasor measurements and their applications*. Springer. https://doi.org/10.1007/978-0-387-76537-2

Poor, H. V., & Hadjiliadis, O. (2009). *Quickest detection*. Cambridge University Press. https://doi.org/10.1017/CBO9780511626883

Rahman, M. A., & Mohsenian-Rad, H. (2012). False data injection attacks against nonlinear state estimation in smart power grids. In *2012 IEEE Power and Energy Society General Meeting* (pp. 1–5). IEEE. https://doi.org/10.1109/PESGM.2012.6345155

Ross, S. M. (2014). *Introduction to probability models* (11th ed.). Academic Press.

Schweppe, F. C., & Wildes, J. (1970). Power system static-state estimation, Part I: Exact model. *IEEE Transactions on Power Apparatus and Systems*, *PAS-89*(1), 120–125. https://doi.org/10.1109/TPAS.1970.292678

Tartakovsky, A., Nikiforov, I., & Basseville, M. (2014). *Sequential analysis: Hypothesis testing and changepoint detection*. CRC Press. https://doi.org/10.1201/b17404

University of Washington. (1993). *Power systems test case archive: 14 bus test case*. University of Washington Electrical Engineering. https://labs.ece.uw.edu/pstca/

Wood, A. J., Wollenberg, B. F., & Sheblé, G. B. (2013). *Power generation, operation, and control* (3rd ed.). John Wiley & Sons.

Zhang, L., Liu, Y., & Wang, H. (2024). Pipelined hardware architectures for real-time cyber-physical anomaly detection. *IEEE Journal on Emerging and Selected Topics in Circuits and Systems*, *14*(1), 112–124. https://doi.org/10.1109/JETCAS.2023.3341890

Zimmerman, R. D., Murillo-Sánchez, C. E., & Thomas, R. J. (2011). MATPOWER: Steady-state operations, planning, and analysis tools for power systems research and education. *IEEE Transactions on Power Systems*, *26*(1), 12–19. https://doi.org/10.1109/TPWRS.2010.2051168

Appendix A

Key Synthesizable SystemVerilog RTL Excerpts

A.1 Three-Process Moore Controller FSM (`rtl/pmu_fsm_ctrl.sv`)

Listing A.1: Synthesizable Moore controller FSM.

```
module pmu_fsm_ctrl (
    input  logic       clk,
    input  logic       rst_n,
    input  logic       data_valid,
    input  logic       mahal_done,
    input  logic       channel_last,
    output logic       data_ready,
    output logic       latch_sample_o,
    output logic       preprocess_en_o,
    output logic       mahal_start_o,
    output logic       cusum_en_o,
    output logic       decision_en_o,
    output logic       bram_we_o,
    output logic       chan_advance_o,
    output logic       frame_done_o,
    output fsm_state_t current_state_o
);
    fsm_state_t current_state, next_state;

    // Process 1: State Register
    always_ff @(posedge clk or negedge rst_n) begin
        if (!rst_n) current_state <= FSM_IDLE;
        else        current_state <= next_state;
    end

    // Process 2: Next-State Logic
    always_comb begin
        next_state = current_state;
        case (current_state)
            FSM_IDLE:         if (data_valid) next_state = FSM_CAPTURE;
            FSM_CAPTURE:      next_state = FSM_PREPROCESS;
            FSM_PREPROCESS:   next_state = FSM_MAHALANOBIS;
            FSM_MAHALANOBIS:  if (mahal_done) next_state = FSM_CUSUM;
            FSM_CUSUM:        next_state = FSM_DECISION;
            FSM_DECISION:     next_state = FSM_STORE_RESULT;
            FSM_STORE_RESULT: next_state = FSM_NEXT_CHANNEL;
            FSM_NEXT_CHANNEL: if (channel_last) next_state = FSM_IDLE;
                              else              next_state = FSM_CAPTURE;
```

```
            default:          next_state = FSM_IDLE;
        endcase
    end

    // Process 3: Pure Moore Outputs
    always_comb begin
        data_ready      = (current_state == FSM_IDLE);
        latch_sample_o  = (current_state == FSM_CAPTURE);
        preprocess_en_o = (current_state == FSM_PREPROCESS);
        mahal_start_o   = (current_state == FSM_MAHALANOBIS);
        cusum_en_o      = (current_state == FSM_CUSUM);
        decision_en_o   = (current_state == FSM_DECISION);
        bram_we_o       = (current_state == FSM_STORE_RESULT);
        chan_advance_o  = (current_state == FSM_NEXT_CHANNEL);
        frame_done_o    = (current_state == FSM_NEXT_CHANNEL);
    end

    assign current_state_o = current_state;
endmodule
```

A.2 Two-Sided CUSUM Core with Zero Clamping (`rtl/cusum_filter_q15.s`

Listing A.2: Recursive CUSUM datapath with saturation.

```
module cusum_filter_q15 (
    input  logic        clk,
    input  logic        rst_n,
    input  logic        enable,
    input  q15_t        y_in,
    input  q15_t        mu_ref,
    input  q15_t        k_slack,
    input  q15_t        h_threshold,
    output q15_t        s_pos_out,
    output q15_t        s_neg_out,
    output logic        alarm_out
);
    q15_t s_pos, s_neg;
    logic signed [16:0] diff_pos, diff_neg;
    logic signed [17:0] sum_pos, sum_neg;

    always_comb begin
        diff_pos = (y_in - mu_ref) - k_slack;
        diff_neg = -(y_in - mu_ref) - k_slack;
        sum_pos  = s_pos + diff_pos;
        sum_neg  = s_neg + diff_neg;
    end

    always_ff @(posedge clk or negedge rst_n) begin
        if (!rst_n) begin
            s_pos <= 16'sh0000;
            s_neg <= 16'sh0000;
        end else if (enable) begin
            s_pos <= (sum_pos < 0) ? 16'sh0000 : (sum_pos > 18'sh7FFF ? 16'sh7FFF
                : sum_pos[15:0]);
            s_neg <= (sum_neg < 0) ? 16'sh0000 : (sum_neg > 18'sh7FFF ? 16'sh7FFF
                : sum_neg[15:0]);
        end
    end

```

```
34      assign s_pos_out = s_pos;
35      assign s_neg_out = s_neg;
36      assign alarm_out = (s_pos > h_threshold) || (s_neg > h_threshold);
37  endmodule
```

Appendix B

Reproducibility and Synthesis Automation

B.1 Vivado Batch Synthesis Script (`scripts/run_synthesis.tcl`)

Listing B.1: Vivado out-of-context synthesis automation.

```
set project_name "pmu_fdi_engine"
set part_name    "xc7a200tfbg676-2"
create_project -force $project_name ./vivado_prj -part $part_name
add_files [glob ./rtl/*.sv]
set_property top pmu_anomaly_top [current_fileset]
update_compile_order -fileset sources_1
synth_design -top pmu_anomaly_top -part $part_name -mode out_of_context
report_utilization -file ./results/synth_utilization.rpt
report_timing_summary -file ./results/synth_timing.rpt
report_power -file ./results/synth_power.rpt
close_project
```

B.2 Verification Workflow

To execute the complete simulation and verification flow:

1. **Generate Telemetry:** Run `python python/generate_telemetry.py` to produce `data/pmu_telemetry.c`
2. **Evaluate Golden Reference:** Run `python python/golden_model.py` to compute bit-accurate statistics and `data/golden_results.csv`.
3. **Run SystemVerilog Testbench:** In Vivado, execute `source scripts/run_simulation.tcl`. The testbench verifies 100.0% bit-exact equivalence across all 1,200 samples.